Total-size lower bounds for small-depth Frege proofs of grid PHP

Johan Hastad

arxiv:2401.15683v3; CC BY 4.0

Editorial note. Only thm:size counts. Complete original author mathematics, figures, proofs and bibliography retained. Publisher metadata adapted to article/natbib; native source unchanged.

Allowed standard prerequisites (editorial).

- Standard definitions and author-cited prior results. All source-local proof and required context retained.

Abstract

We study Frege proofs for the functional and onto graph Pigeon Hole Principle defined on the $n \times n$ grid where n is odd. We are interested in the case where each formula in the proof is a depth d formula in the basis given by $\wedge$, $\vee$, and $\neg$. We prove that in this situation the proof needs to be of size exponential in $n^{\Omega(1/d)}$. If we restrict each line in the proof to be of size M then the number of lines needed is exponential in $n/(\log M)^{O(d)}$. The main technical component of the proofs is to design a new family of random restrictions and to prove the appropriate switching lemmas.

1 Introduction

In this paper we study formal proofs of formulas in Boolean variables encoding natural combinatorial principles. We can think of these as tautologies but it is often more convenient to think of them as contradictions. When a certain formula, F, is a contradiction then its negation, $\bar{F}$ is a tautology and we do not distinguish the two. In particular in the below discussion we might call something a tautology that the reader, possibly rightly, thinks of as a contradiction. We are equally liberal with usage of the word "proof" which might more accurately be called "a derivation of contradiction".

We are given a set of local constraints that we call "axioms". These are locally satisfiable but not globally in that there is no global assignment that satisfies all the axioms. A proof derives consequences of the axioms and it is complete when it reaches an obvious contradiction such as $1 = 0$ or that an empty clause contains a true literal.

A key property of such a proof system is the kind of statements that can be used and in this paper we study Boolean formulas with at most d alternations. Traditionally one has studied formulas over the basis $\wedge$, $\vee$, and $\neg$, where negations only appear at the inputs. In this formalism one counts the number of alternations between $\wedge$ and $\vee$. We instead use the basis given by $\vee$ and $\neg$ and count the number of alternations between the two connectives. There is an easy translation between the two as $\wedge$ can be simulated by $\neg \vee \neg$. We consider the case where d is a constant or a slowly growing function of the size of the input.

A fundamental and popular case is resolution corresponding to $d = 1$, where each formula is a disjunction of literals. It is far from easy to analyze resolution but this proof system has been studied for a long time and many questions are now resolved. We do not want to discuss the history of resolution but as it is very relevant for the current paper let us mention that an early milestone was obtained by Haken [7] in 1985 when he proved that the Pigeon Hole Principle (PHP) requires exponential size resolution proofs. The PHP states that $n + 1$ pigeons can fly to n holes such that no two pigeons fly to the same hole. There are many ways to code this statement using Boolean variables and we use the basic variant which has $(n+1)n$ Boolean variables x_{ij}. Such a variable is true iff pigeon i flies to the hole j. The axioms say that for each i there is a value of j such that x_{ij} is true and for each j there is at most one i such that x_{ij} is true. This is clearly a contradiction but to prove this counting is useful and resolution is not very efficient when it comes to counting.

Previous work. The focus of this paper is the more powerful proof system obtained for larger values of d and here a pioneering result was obtained by Ajtai [1] proving superpolynomial lower bounds for the size of any proof for PHP for any fixed constant d. The lower bounds of Ajtai were not explicit and Bellantoni et al [3] gave the first such bounds, namely that depth $\Omega(\log^* n)$ is needed for the size of the proof to be polynomial. This was greatly improved in two independent works by Krajíček, Pudlák, and Woods [14] and Pitassi, Beame, and

Impagliazzo [15], respectively. These two papers established lower bounds for the size of any proof of the PHP of the form exponential in $n^{c^{-d}}$ where $c > 1$, and gave non-trivial bounds for depths as high as $\Theta(\log \log n)$.

Related questions were studied in circuit complexity where the central question is to study the size of a circuit needed to compute a particular function. Here a sequence of results [6],[20], [24], [8] established size lower bounds of the form exponential in $n^{\Omega(1/d)}$ and obtained strong lower bounds for d as large as $\Theta(\log n/\log \log n)$. The results were obtained for the parity function and here it is easy to show that this function can be computed by circuits of matching size. To see that PHP allows proof of size exponential in $n^{O(1/d)}$ is more difficult but was established in 2001 by Atserias et al [2].

A technique used in many of these papers is called "restrictions". The idea is simply to, in a more or less clever way, give values to most of the variables in the object under study and to analyze the effect. One must preserve[1] the function computed (or tautology being proved) while at the same time be able to simplify the circuits assumed to compute the function or the formulas in the claimed proof. An important reason that the lower bounds in circuit complexity were stronger than those in proof complexity is that it is easier to preserve a single function than an entire tautology with many axioms. Due to these complications strong lower bounds for depths beyond $\Theta(\log \log n)$, for any tautology, remained unknown for several decades.

The first result that broke this barrier was obtained by Pitassi et al [16] who obtained super-polynomial lower bounds for depths up to any $o(\sqrt{\log n})$. The tautology investigated was first studied by Tseitin [22] and considers a set of linear equations modulo two defined by a graph. The underlying graph for [16] is an expander. These results were later extended to depth $\Theta(\log n/\log \log n)$ by Håstad [10] and in this case the underlying graph is the two-dimensional square grid. The bounds obtained were further improved by Håstad and Risse [12].

All results mentioned so far only discuss total size. For resolution, each formula derived is a clause and hence of size at most n but for other proof systems it is interesting to study the number of lines in the proof and the sizes of lines separately. Pitassi, Ramakrishnan, and Tan [17] had the great insight that a technical strengthening of the used methods yields much stronger bounds for this measure than implied by the size bounds. They combined some of the techniques of [10] with methods from [16] to establish that if each line is of size at most M then the number of lines in a proof that establishes the Tseitin principle over the square grid needs to be exponential in $n2^{-d\sqrt{\log M}}$. By using some additional ideas Håstad and Risse [12] fully extended the techniques of [10] to this setting improving the bounds to exponential in $n/(\log M)^{O(d)}$.

Our results. Despite this progress, the over thirty year old question whether the PHP allows polynomial size proofs of depth $O(\log \log n)$ remained open. The purpose of this paper is to prove that it does not and that lower bounds similar to those for the Tseitin tautology also apply to the PHP. To build on previous techniques we study what is known as the graph PHP where the underlying graph is an odd size two-dimensional grid.

As the side length of the grid is odd, if one colors it as a chess board, the corners are of the same color and let us assume this is white. In the graph PHP on the grid, there is a pigeon on each white square and it should fly to one of the adjacent black squares that define the holes. This graph PHP is the result of the general PHP where most variables are forced to take the value 0. Each pigeon is only given at most four alternatives. Clearly any proof for the general PHP can be modified to give a proof of the graph PHP by replacing some variables by the constant false. To limit ourselves further we prove our lower bounds for what is known as the functional and onto PHP. We add axioms saying that each pigeon can only fly to one hole and each hole receives exactly one pigeon.

Phrased slightly differently, the functional and onto PHP on the grid says that there is a perfect matching of the odd size grid and we heavily use local matchings. We can compare this to the Tseitin tautology on the grid studied by [10, 12, 17] that states that it is possible to assign Boolean values to the edges of the grid such that there is an odd number of true variables next to any node. As a perfect matching would immediately yield such an assignment, the PHP is a stronger statement and possibly easier to refute. In particular, any lower bound for functional and onto PHP gives the same lower bound for the Tseitin contradiction. We do not, however, think of the results of the current paper as a new proof for the results in [12] (with slightly weaker bounds). In fact, as the construction of this paper shares many features with the construction of [12], it is better to think the current proof as an adjustment of the latter proof taking care of complications that we here only work with matchings. Let us turn to discuss the main technical point, namely to prove a "switching lemma".

By assigning values to most variables in a formula it is possible to switch a small depth-two formula from being a CNF to being a DNF and the other way around. In the basic switching lemma used to prove circuit lower bounds [6, 8, 24], uniformly random constant values are substituted for a majority of the variables. Such restrictions are the easiest to analyze but are less useful in proof complexity as they do not preserve any interesting tautology.

[1] One does not really preserve a function or a formula and an object of size n is reduced to a similar object of size $f(n)$ for some $f(n) < n$.

To preserve a tautology or a complicated function it is useful to replace several old variables by the same new variable, possibly negated. It is possible to be even more liberal and allow old variables to be replaced by slightly more complicated expressions in the new variables. This technique was first introduced explicitly by Rossman, Servedio, and Tan [19] when studying the depth hierarchy for small-depth circuits but had been used in more primitive form in earlier papers. We use such generalized restrictions in this paper.

Multi-switching. The technical strengthening needed by [17] that we discussed above is to improve the standard switching lemma to what is commonly known as a multi-switching lemma. This concept was first introduced independently by Håstad [9] and Impagliazzo, Mathews, and Paturi [13] to study the correlation of small-depths circuits and simple functions such as parity.

In this setting one considers many formulas $(F^i)_{i=1}^m$ and the goal is to switch them all simultaneously in the following sense. There is a small depth (common) decision tree such that at any leaf of the tree it is possible to represent each F^i by a small formula of the other type. It was the insight that multi-switching can be used in the proof complexity setting that made it possible for [17] to derive the strong bounds on the number of lines in a proof when each line is short. The extension to multi-switching turns out to be mostly technical and not require any really new ideas. In view of this let us for the rest of this introduction only discuss standard switching.

Techniques used. The most novel part of this paper is to design a new space of restrictions that preserve the functional and onto graph PHP on the grid. It has many similarities with the space introduced in [10] and from a very high level point of view, the proofs follow the same path. At the more detailed level in this paper we work with partial matchings of the grid which is a more rigid object than assignments that only satisfy the Tseitin condition of an odd number of true variables next to any node. This results in considerable changes in the details and as a result we get slightly worse bounds.

Once the space of restrictions is in place, two tasks remain. Namely, to prove the switching lemmas and then use these bounds to derive the claimed bounds on proof size. This latter part hardly changes compared to previous papers. The switching lemmas follow the same pattern as in [10] and [12] but we need some new combinatorial lemmas and the fact that we work with matchings calls for some modifications.

Outline of the paper. We start with some preliminaries and recall some facts from previous papers in Section 2. We introduce our new space of random restrictions in Section 3. The basic switching lemma is proved in Section 4 and we use it to establish the lower bound for proof size in Section 5. We give the multi-switch lemma in Section 6 and use it, in Section 7, to derive the lower bounds on the number of lines in a proof. We end with some very brief comments in Section 8. This is the final version of [11] which was presented at the 2023 FOCS conference.

2 Preliminaries

In this section we give some basic definitions and derive some simple properties. We also recall some useful facts from related papers.

2.1 The formula to refute

We study the functional and onto PHP on the odd size $n \times n$ grid and when we want to emphasize the size of the grid we use the term PHP_n. Nodes are given indexed by (i, j) where $1 \leq i, j \leq n$ and a node is connected to other nodes where one of the two coordinates is the same and the other differ by 1. As opposed to some previous papers studying the Tseitin tautology, it is here important that we are on the grid and not on the torus as we want a bipartite graph. For any edge, $e = (v, w)$ of adjacent nodes, v and w, we have a variable x_e. The axioms say that for each v if you consider the, at most four, variables adjacent to v exactly one of them is true. This is easy to write as a 4-CNF. The axioms look exactly the same for holes and pigeons.

This formula is a stronger statement compared to the standard PHP formula with $(n^2 + 1)/2$ pigeons and $(n^2 - 1)/2$ holes. Our parameters are slightly different from the standard parameters where n is the number of holes, but we trust the reader to keep this in mind.

We assume that the grid is colored as a chess board and that the corners are white. Thus, pigeons correspond to white nodes and holes to black nodes. We prefer to use the colors to distinguish the two as we later use larger objects that inherit the same colors.

2.2 Frege proofs

We consider proofs where each line in the proof is either an axiom or derived from previous lines. The derivation rules are not important and all we need is that they are of constant size and sound. We use the same rules as [16], [10], [17], and [12]. We demand that each formula that appears is of depth at most d and, as several previous papers, we do not allow $\wedge$ and count the number of alternations of $\neg$ and $\vee$. The $\wedge$ operator is simulated by $\neg \vee \neg$. The rules are as follows.

- (Excluded middle) $(p \vee \neg p)$
- (Expansion rule) $(p \to p \vee q)$
- (Contraction rule) $(p \vee p) \to p$
- (Association rule) $p \vee (q \vee r) \to (p \vee q) \vee r$
- (Cut rule) $p \vee q, \neg p \vee r \to q \vee r$.

2.3 Decision trees and partial matchings of the grid

As the use of decision trees is central to the current paper let us define some notions. In a standard decision tree, at each node we ask for the value of an input variable. In this paper we instead allow queries of the form.

"To which node is v matched?"

The answer to this question determines the value of any variable next to v and thus is more powerful than a single variable question. On the other hand it can be simulated by asking ordinary variable questions for three variables around v. Thus within a factor of three in the number of questions, this type of questions is equivalent to variable queries.

We require that the answers along any branch in a decision are locally consistent and keep all such branches. The key property is that it is possible to extend the partial matching given by the answers on this branch to a large fraction of the grid. Product sets of collections of disjoint sets of intervals are convenient for us. The size of an interval is the number of elements it contains. The size of a partial matching is the number of edges it contains.

Definition 1. *A partial matching M on the $n \times n$ grid of size t is* locally consistent *if it can be extended to a complete matching of a larger set $S \times T$. We require that each of S and T is the union of disjoint even-sized intervals such that the total size of all intervals in each of S and T is at most $48t$.*

Remark. The constant 48 in the definition is not optimal and with a more careful analysis it can be decreased, but we have opted for shorter proofs rather than optimal constants.

We use two properties from locally consistent matchings. Firstly that given any node not matched in the matching then it is possible to include also this node with a suitable partner. This is proved in Lemma 2 below. The second property we need is that a sub-matching of any locally consistent matching is also locally consistent. This is proved in Lemma 3. We do not exclude that there is a simpler definition of locally consistent that achieve these two properties, but our definition is one possibility.

Most of the time we think of parts of the grid as sets of points in $\mathbb{R}^2$ with integer coordinates connected in the natural way. For pictures it is sometimes convenient to view them as black and white unit size squares connected if they share and edge. We sometimes use this viewpoint.

Lemma 2. *Suppose we have a locally consistent partial matching, M of size at most $n/50 - 9$ in the $n \times n$ grid and that we are given a node v not matched by M. It is then possible to find a partner, w, of v, such that M jointly with (u, w) is a locally consistent matching.*

Proof. If v is already in $S \times T$ we can use the same extension. Suppose $v = (a, b)$ where $a \in S$ and $b \notin T$. It is easy to find b' such that $T \cup \{b, b'\}$ is a union of even size intervals. Now we can add matchings of $S \times b$ and $S \times b'$ using that S is a union of even size intervals.

The case when $a \notin S$ and $b \in T$ is symmetric and let us handle the case $a \notin S$ and $b \notin T$. We can find b' as in the previous case, enlarging T to $T' = T \cup \{b, b'\}$ and then proceed by adding a and a suitable a' to S.

We enlarge the sizes of each of S and T by at most 2 but since the size of the matching increases by one this is not a problem. □

Let us state the natural property that any sub-matching of a locally consistent matching is locally consistent. As our proof is surprisingly complicated we postpone the proof to Appendix A.

Lemma 3. *Suppose M is a locally consistent matching. Then any subset of M is locally consistent.*

We are also interested in matching areas of the plane which are almost a complete square. The difference is that some squares next to the perimeter are removed. We call such a removed square a "dent".

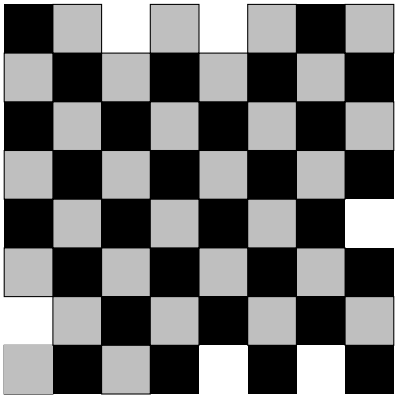


Figure 1: A square with 3 white and 3 black dents.

Lemma 4. *Suppose we have a square with even side length and which has the same number of white and black dents. Suppose further that there are at most M dents and no dent is within M of a corner. In this situation there is always a matching of the square. If we have a square with odd side length and white corners, then the similar statement is true assuming we have one more white dent.*

Remark 5. *The condition of any dent being at distance at least M from the perimeter is not exactly sharp. Some condition on the number of dents next to a corner is, however, needed as it is easy to see that removing many white squares next to a corner gives a local surplus of black squares that cannot be matched. As the exact condition is not important we opted for a simple one.*

Proof. We could use the general condition for the existence of a matching given in Lemma 38 but as the situation is very structured we find a direct proof to be easier to follow. It also gives better constants (even though, of course, this is not very important).

Let us first do the case of even side length and start by sketching the argument. We construct a matching in an onion-like fashion using as many pairs along the perimeter as possible. Let us say that two dents are "adjacent" if the perimeter is dent-free between these two nodes. If two adjacent dents are at an even distance then it is possible to perfectly match all nodes between the two dents. This happens iff the two adjacent dents are of different colors. If two adjacent dents are of the same color we need to match one node with the node towards the interior creating a new dent in the new square which has side length two less than the original square. Let us say this more formally.

Suppose the side length is S. Take any dent, and assume for concreteness that it is white. Start matching nodes two and two along the perimeter starting with the node next to this dent. This is straightforward until we hit the next dent. If this dent is black we get a perfect match along the perimeter while if it is white we are forced to create a new white dent. We continue on the other side of this dent and go all around the square. We get a new square of side length $S - 2$ and some dents. A dent remains iff it is the same color as the dent preceding it.

As we have both black and white dents, the number of dents has decreased by at least two and the distance to the corner has decreased by at most 2. As each matched pair contains one black square and one white square the number of white dents equals the number of black dents. We repeat this process until there are no remaining dents. The rest is easy to match.

If the side length is odd then the process stops when there is only one white dent on the boundary. Also in this case the remaining square is easy to match. □

It is easy to see that in most situation where we apply Lemma 4 there are many possible matchings. It is convenient for us to think of the matching as given uniquely by the boundary conditions. This can be done in many ways and any deterministic procedure to go from the set of dents to the matching works for us.

Lemma 2 ensures that in any decision tree with questions of the form "To which node is v matched?" there is one possible answer such that the partial matching created by the path so far results in a locally consistent matching. By simply erasing any branch which is not locally consistent we maintain the property of each branch being locally consistent.

Lemma 3 ensures a slightly more subtle property. Suppose we are given a decision tree, T, of small depth and we have a small partial matching, τ and we want to explore T given τ. Lemma 2 makes sure that as long as the sum of the size of τ and the depth of the decision tree is small, it is always possible to find a locally consistent partner for any node queried by T. Lemma 3 makes sure that any such answer is also present in T and hence it has not already been pruned away. Let us state this as a lemma

Lemma 6. *Let T be a decision tree of depth t and τ a locally consistent matching of size t'. Then, provided $t + t' \leq n/50$ the decision tree obtained from pruning all branches of T which are not consistent with τ is a non-empty decision tree.*

We use this lemma in many places without explicitly referring to it. We denote the resulting decision tree by $T\lceil_\tau$.

We say that a decision tree is a 1-tree if all its leafs are labeled one and similarly we have 0-trees. It might seem redundant to allow such trees but when doing operations on decision trees they naturally occur.

2.4 t-evaluations

The concept of t-evaluations was introduced by Krajíček et al. [14] and is a very convenient tool for proving lower bounds on proof size. Here we follow the presentation of Urquhart and Fu [23] while using the notation of [10] and [12]. A t-evaluation, φ, is a map from a set of formulas to decision trees of depth at most t. We always have the property that this set of formulas is closed under taking sub-formulas. We want the following properties.

1. The constant true is represented by a 1-tree and the constant false is represented by a 1-tree.
2. If F is an axiom of the PHP contradiction then $\varphi(F)$ is a 1-tree.
3. If F is a single variable then $\varphi(F)$ is the natural decision tree of depth 1 defining the value of this variable.
4. If $\varphi(F) = T$ then $\varphi(\neg F)$ is a decision tree with the same internal structure as T but where the value at each leaf is negated.
5. Suppose $F = \vee F_i$. Consider a leaf in $\varphi(F)$ and the assignment, τ leading to this leaf. If the leaf is labeled 0 then for each i $\varphi(F_i)\lceil_\tau$ is a 0-tree and if the leaf is labeled 1 then for some i, $\varphi(F_i)\lceil_\tau$ is a 1-tree.

Remember that in our situation the nodes of the decision tree ask to which other node a certain node v is matched and we also require the assignment along a path in the decision tree to be locally consistent. In this situation, condition 2 follows from the other conditions, but in general this is not the case. The key property for t-evaluations is the following lemma.

Lemma 7. *Suppose we have a derivation using the rules of Section 2.2 starting with the axioms of the functional onto* PHP *on the $n \times n$ grid. Let Γ be the set of all sub-formulas of this derivation and suppose there is a t-evaluation whose range includes Γ where $t \leq n/150$. Then each line in the derivation is mapped to a 1-tree. In particular we do not reach a contradiction.*

Proof. This is the lemma that corresponds to Lemma 6.4 of [10]. It relies on two properties, namely that each axiom is represented by a 1-tree, and that the derivation rules preserve this property. The first property is ensured by the local consistency of any branch in a decision tree. The second property follows from the fact that the derivation rules are sound and we never "get stuck" in a decision tree. By this we mean that it always possible to continue a branch in a decision tree keeping the values locally consistent. This is ensured by Lemma 2 and Lemma 3.

The proof is by induction over the number of lines in the proof and we need to discuss each of the five rules. As this is rather tedious we here only discuss the Cut rule which is the most interesting rule. We are confident that the reader can handle the other rules and if this is not the case, the other cases are discussed in detail in the proof of Lemma 6.4 of [10].

The application of the cut rule derives $F = q \vee r$ from $p \vee q$ and $\neg p \vee r$. By induction $\varphi(p \vee q)$ and $\varphi(\neg p \vee r)$ are both 1-trees and we must establish that so is $\varphi(F)$. For contradiction, take a supposed leaf with label 0 in $\varphi(F)$ and let τ be the assignment leading to this leaf. We know that $\varphi(q)\lceil_\tau$ and $\varphi(r)\lceil_\tau$ are both 0-trees. Consider any path in $\varphi(p)\lceil_\tau$ and let τ_1 be the assignment of this path. Assume this leaf is labeled 0, the other case being similar. Now take any path in $\varphi(p \vee q)\lceil_{\tau\tau_1}$. As this is a 1-tree the label at this path must be 1. This contradicts that $\varphi(p)\lceil_{\tau_1}$ as well as $\varphi(q)\lceil_\tau$ are both 0-trees.

We need sets of three assignments of size t to be extendable in a locally consistent way and $3t \leq n/50$ ensures that this is possible. □

When studying the number of lines in a proof where each line is short, an extension of Lemma 7 is needed. This was first done in [17] and we rely on the argument of [12].

In this situation it is not possible to have a single t-evaluation whose range is all the sub-formulas that appear in the proof. Instead, we have separate t-evaluations for each line. Furthermore, for each line these t-evaluations live at the leaves of a decision tree. As these are very similar to what is called ℓ-common decision trees (as defined in [9]) we call them ℓ-common t-evaluations.

Definition 8. *A set of formulas $(F_i)_{i=1}^M$ has an ℓ-common t-evaluation if there is a decision tree of depth ℓ with the following properties. Take any leaf of this decision tree and let τ be the partial assignment defined by this path. At this leaf we have a t-evaluation φ_τ of the formulas $(F^i\lceil_\tau))_{i=1}^M$.*

We need an extension of Lemma 7. Suppose we are given a proof of PHP and for each line, λ, let Γ_λ be the set of all sub-formulas of the formula appearing in this line and let φ_τ^λ be the t-evaluation given at the leaf defined by τ that contains Γ_λ it is domain.

Lemma 9. *Suppose we have a derivation using the rules of Section 2.2 starting with the axioms of the functional onto* PHP *on the $n \times n$ grid. Suppose each Γ_λ allows an ℓ-common t-evaluation. Suppose $\ell + t \leq n/300$, then each line of the derivation is mapped to a 1-tree in all leaves of its decision tree.*

The proof of this is not very complicated but needs some notation. The important property is that the copies of the same formula appearing in multiple lines are mapped in a consistent way. Take a formula F appearing on lines λ_1 and λ_2. Take any leaf in the common decision tree of λ_1 defined by an assignment τ_1. Take any assignment τ_1' consistent with τ_1 in the decision tree $\varphi_{\tau_1}^{\lambda_1}(F)$ leading to a branch labeled b. We claim the following.

Lemma 10. *For any F, τ_1, τ_1', and b as described above consider the decision tree $T = \varphi_{\tau_2}^{\lambda_2}(F)$ where τ_2 is locally consistent with τ_1 and τ_1'. Then any path in T defined by an assignment τ_2' consistent with τ_1, τ_1' and τ_2 leads to a leaf labeled b.*

Proof. We prove this by induction over the complexity of F. The lemma is true when F is a single variable as this follows from the definition of a t-evaluation.

Now for the induction step. When F is of the form $\neg F'$, then the the lemma follows from the basic properties of t-evaluations and the inductive case that the lemma is true for F'.

Finally, assume that $F = \vee_{i=1}^m F_i$ and suppose it violates the lemma getting a tuple τ_1, τ_1', τ_2, and τ_2' leading to leaves with different values in the two trees. Assume with without loss of generality that $b = 1$, the situation being symmetric between the two lines.

By the definition of t-evaluations there must be an i such that $\varphi_{\tau_1}^{\lambda_1}(F_i)\lceil_{\tau_1'}$ is a 1-tree. Similarly, for λ_2, we know that $\varphi_{\tau_2}^{\lambda_2}(F_i)\lceil_{\tau_2'}$ is a 0-tree. As the four-tuple of restrictions is consistent and F_i is simpler than F this contradicts the inductive assumption.

Here we need two sets of pairs of assignments to be locally consistent and hence $t+\ell \leq n/100$ is sufficient. □

Lemma 10 tells us that the same formula when considered on different lines and under different t-evaluations behaves the same. The proof of Lemma 9 is now essentially identical to the proof of Lemma 7. In this situation we need triplets of three pairs of assignments to be consistent and hence we use $t + \ell \leq n/300$. We omit the details.

3 Restrictions

As stated in the introduction we use a slightly more complicated object than a restriction which normally only gives values to some variables. A restriction in our setting fixes many variables to constants but also substitutes the same variable or its negation for some variables. In a few cases an old variable is substituted by a small logical formula which is a disjunction of size at most three.

We are given an instance of the PHP on the $n \times n$ grid and a restriction, for a suitable parameter T, reduces it to a smaller instance on the $(n/T) \times (n/T)$ grid where (n/T) is an odd number.

We divide the grid in to $(n/T)^2$ squares, called super-squares, each with side length T. Inside each super-square there are Δ (for a parameter to be fixed) smaller squares that we from now on call "mini-squares" (of side length larger than 1, but smaller than the super-squares). We pick one mini-square inside each super-square and let these represent the smaller instance. Each super-square has a color as given by a chess board coloring of the reduced instance. For instance the corner super-squares are all white. Each mini-square has the color of its super-square.

Between each mini-square, s_i and any mini-square s_j' in an adjacent super-square we have $3R$ (for a parameter to be chosen) edge-disjoint paths, each of even length. We can match exactly all vertices on any such path by matching each node of the path to the appropriate adjacent node. We are also interested in matching each node

to the other neighbor on the path and in this case we need to include one node in each of the two mini-squares to which it is attached creating a dent in the sense of Lemma 4. We think of this as using the path as an augmenting path and hence we sometimes refer to these paths as "augmenting paths". A matching on such a path is of type 0 if it does not include any node from the attached mini-squares and otherwise it is of type 1.

We group the $3R$ paths in groups of three and within each group, two attach at a node which is the same color as the color as the mini-square, while the third one attaches to a node of opposite color. As each path is of even length, the nodes of attachment at the two end-points are of different colors but so are the mini-squares to which the path attaches. Hence the attachment points are either both the same color as the respective mini-square or both the opposite color. The first two augmenting paths may be of type 0 or 1. The third path is always of type 1 and as these paths play little role in the argument we mostly ignore them from now on.

Let us point out that for mini-squares in super-squares on the perimeter of the entire grid, in some direction(s) there are no adjacent mini-square. In this situation, no paths attach on the side with no neighbor.

For each augmenting path P we have a corresponding Boolean variable y_P which indicates whether it is of type 0 or type 1. By the R fixed paths of type 1 we can conclude that for any mini-square, if exactly half of its varying paths are of type 0 (and hence the other half is type 1) then its interior has equally many white nodes as black nodes remaining.

We set up our restrictions such that it is uniquely determined by the values for the variables y_P. Outside the paths and the mini-squares we more or less have a fixed matching. This concludes the high level description of a restriction and let us repeat the argument, now giving all formal details.

3.1 Details of mini-squares and paths

It is convenient to use the concept of a *brick* which is a square of size 30×30. We think of routing paths through bricks, but in concrete terms such a path is given by two points of attachment of different colors. If the path is of type 0 these two potential dents are matched inside the brick and if the path is of type 1 these two points are matched to the appropriate neighbor in the neighboring brick. We make sure that the there are at most three dents in each side of the brick and of distance at least 12 to any corner and hence we can use Lemma 4 to find a matching of the interior. This matching might not look like a path going through the brick but from an abstract point this is a good way to see it.

We have two parameters, R and Δ and we think of them as follows. R is needed to ensure that of R (almost) random bits it is likely that about half of them are true. For this reason $R = \Theta(\log n)$. The parameter Δ is picked to make sure that $150R\Delta^2$ is slightly less than T.

Mini-squares. All but one mini-square have side length $120\Delta R$ (or, equivalently, $4\Delta R$ bricks). We have $4\Delta R$ bricks on each side and the interesting part is the middle $2\Delta R$ bricks. The bricks close to the corners are only used to ensure that we can perfectly match the interior of the mini-square according to Lemma 4.

Half of the middle bricks are used to route the $3\Delta R$ paths to the Δ mini-squares in the super-square in the given direction. The other ΔR middle bricks are used to make sure that there is enough space to route the paths through different blocks between the mini-squares.

Designated survivor. We have a special single mini-square in the top left corner super-square[2]. It has side length $120\Delta R + 1$ which in particular is an odd number but is otherwise like the other mini-squares. We call this the "designated survivor".

The first row and first column. In the top row, the $n - 120R\Delta - 1$ nodes outside the designated survivor are matched in a horizontal matching. Similarly, the nodes in the leftmost column outside the designated survivor are matched in a vertical matching. This essentially eliminates one row and one column outside the top left super-square and we assume for convenience that $n \equiv 1$ modulo 30 and we cover the rest of the grid with bricks.

Structure of super-squares. A super-square is a square of bricks of side length $5\Delta^2 R$ bricks. We need $150\Delta^2 R$ to be slightly smaller than T. We might need a few extra rows and columns for divisibility reasons but for notational simplicity we ignore this difference and simply assume $T = 150\Delta^2 R$. Starting in the top left corner in each super-square we have Δ mini-squares along the diagonal. This leaves $\Delta^2 R$ empty rows of bricks in the bottom of each super-square and $\Delta^2 R$ empty columns at the right. By our placement of the designated survivor and the elimination of the top row and first column also the top left super-square looks essentially the same as other super-squares.

[2]This could be any white super-square and choosing this particular super-square is just to make some fixed choice.

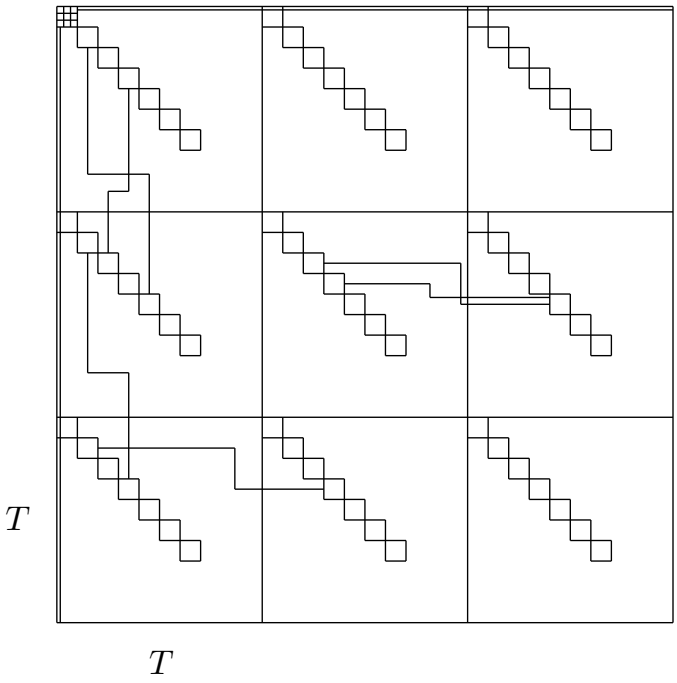


Figure 2: The placement of mini-squares and super-squares and some paths. The designated survivor is the checkered mini-square. The matchings along top row and leftmost column are indicated by solid lines.

Structure of paths. Fix a mini-square s_i in a super-square S and let us see how to route paths to mini-squares s'_j in the super-square to its right. For each pair (i, j) we reserve R columns, c^k_{ij}, $1 \leq k \leq R$, of bricks in the right part of S. This can be done has we have Δ^2 pairs of mini-squares and $\Delta^2 R$ empty columns of bricks.

We number the middle bricks on each side from one to $2\Delta R$ and for each j we reserve R bricks, all with even number on the right perimeter of s_i. The kth brick contains three paths that we route straight right to c^k_{ij}. Similarly we route paths straight left from the kth brick in the ith part of s'_j to the same column. This time using odd numbered bricks. The path is completed by using the suitable part of c^k_{ij} to connect the two pieces.

Connecting mini-squares vertically is done completely analogously and we omit the description. Let us make a not very difficult observation.

Lemma 11. *In each brick outside the mini-squares there is at most one set of three vertical paths and at most one set of three horizontal paths.*

Proof. Let us look at the area to the right of the diagonal in one super-square and to the left of the diagonal in the super-square to its right. The only vertical parts of paths in this area are from the middle segments of the paths. By definition these are in disjoint columns.

The horizontal parts of paths in this area are from either segment one or segment three. As the former are in even numbered rows of bricks and the latter in odd numbered rows these are also disjoint.

The argument for the area below a diagonal of one super-square and above the diagonal below, is completely analogous.

The remaining part is the area down to the right in each mini-square, i.e. in the intersection of columns with no mini-squares and rows with no mini-squares. In these bricks there are no paths. □

We summarize the properties we need from this construction.

Lemma 12. *The values of the path variables y_P uniquely determines a matching on all paths and in any brick outside the mini-squares. In any mini-square except the designated survivor such that half of its adjacent y_P variables are true we can find a unique matching of the remainder of this mini-square. In the designated survivor we can find a matching provided one more than half the adjacent variables is true.*

3.2 Almost complete matchings and restrictions

We let an *almost complete matching*, usually denoted τ, be an assignment to all variables y_P such that exactly half the variables next to any mini-square are true. Note that many such τ do exist and in particular we can

pick half the paths in any group of $2R$ paths to be of each type. There are many other ways to pick τ but we do not need this explicitly.

Our restrictions are constructed by giving fixed values to some variables y_P while some remain unset. We rename the latter z_P to distinguish new and old variables. While an individual x_e might depend on many y_P it only depends on at most three new variables.

Let us proceed to describe how to pick a random restriction from our space. We make uniformly random choices but if some choice is very unlucky we redo this choice. Let π_1 be a fixed matching of all super-squares except the top left square where the designated survivor is located. We pick a restriction σ as follows.

1. Pick a uniformly random almost complete matching τ. If any group of $2R$ variables between two fixed mini-squares has fewer than $R/2$ variables of either value, restart. We denote this event as "lopsided group".

2. Pick a random mini-square from each super-square, except the super-square of the designated survivor forming, jointly with the designated survivor, the set U. Match these mini-squares according to π_1. Call the resulting matching (now of mini-squares) π_1^U.

3. For each pair of mini-squares (s_1, s_2) matched in π_1^U pick one augmenting path of type 1 and convert it to type 0. These are called chosen paths. The choice is based on an advice string B as discussed in Section 3.5 below.

4. For each pair of mini-squares (s_1, s_2) in U in adjacent super-squares but not matched in π_1^U pick one augmenting path of type 0 and make it a chosen path. The choice of the path is based on the advice string as discussed in Section 3.5 below. This is also done with s_1 being the designated survivor.

For each chosen path P we have corresponding variable z_P. These give the variables in the reduced instance.

3.3 The reduced instance

The nodes of the new instance are given by the elements in U. They naturally form a $(n/T) \times (n/T)$ grid. We have chosen paths that are of type 0 that connect any two adjacent elements in U while for any other path P, the value of y_P is now fixed.

By Lemma 12 if exactly one variable corresponding to a chosen path next to a mini-square in U is true, then it is possible to find a matching of this mini-square. Thus the local conditions of a mini-square turn in to an axiom of the new instance of PHP. Let us see how to replace the old variables in a supposed proof with these new variables. First note that old variables not on edges in chosen mini-squares or in bricks with at least one chosen path are now fixed in a way respecting the corresponding axioms.

We now describe how to restrict the variables of PHP_n according to a full restriction σ. Consider a brick with at least one chosen path going through. There is only one chosen path between any two adjacent chosen mini-squares and it is not difficult to see that at most one chosen path goes through any brick. There are two possible matchings of this brick depending on the value of the corresponding variable z_P. If an edge e is present in neither we replace x_e by 0 and if it is present in both we replace it by 1. If e is present in only one we replace it by z_P or $\bar{z}_P$ in the natural way. It is easy to see that any axiom related to a node in the brick becomes true.

Similarly, in a mini-square we have four (or fewer if it is on the perimeter) chosen paths next to it. These are controlled by four new variables that we here locally call z_i for $1 \leq i \leq 4$. The new local axiom is that exactly one of these four variables is true.

We have four different matchings of the mini-square depending on which z_i is chosen to be true. Look at an edge, e and suppose, for example, that it appears in the matchings corresponding to z_2 and z_3 being true. In such a case we replace x_e by $z_2 \vee z_3$ and similarly in other cases. If e is in none of the four matchings we replace x_e by the constant 0 and if it is in all four we replace it by the constant 1.

It is easy to check that any original axiom inside the mini-square either reduces to true or that exactly one of the four z_i is true. Indeed, looking at the disjunctions replacing the four variables x_e around any node, each z_i appears in exactly one. We summarize the discussion of this section as follows.

Lemma 13. *A restriction σ reduces an axiom in the PHP_n either to the constant true or an axiom in the $\mathrm{PHP}_{(n/T)}$ of the new variables z_P. Each variable x_e is substituted by a conjunction of up to three literals.*

Let us finally note that each variable x_e that is not replaced by a constant or a single variable appears inside a chosen mini-square corresponding to a node, v, in the new instance. It is completely determined by the answer to the question "To which node is v matched" and hence it is not very different from other variables. In particular since it is determined by one basic query there is no problem with a build-up of complicated expressions when we compose restrictions.

As in previous papers these full restrictions are not used in the main argument and we work with partial restrictions that we now turn to. The intuitive reason to introduce these is that a full restriction is a very rigid

object with exactly one live mini-square in each super-square. In the final argument we compare the number of restrictions to the number of restrictions with slightly less live variables. This does not work for full restrictions as the number of full restrictions that have s live mini-squares removed is actually higher than the number of full restrictions. If we instead first globally pick a larger number of mini-squares to keep alive, then decreasing the number of such live mini-squares does decrease the number of alternatives. Let us turn to defining these partial restrictions.

3.4 Partial restrictions

Let k be a parameter equal to $C(n/T)^2 \log n$ for a sufficiently large constant C. After we have completed the construction of σ we add the following steps.

1. Pick, without replacement of mini-squares, k uniformly random pairs of mini-squares in adjacent super-squares. These are picked one at the time and each is picked uniformly from the set of remaining possible pairs. This yields a matching π_2. If any super-square has more than $4C \log n$ live mini-squares we consider the choice unbalanced and we restart. Also, if for any two adjacent super-squares S_1 and S_2 if we have less $C \log n/4$ pairs (s_1, s_2) with $s_i \in S_i$ we consider the choice unbalanced and restart.

2. Change the type of one augmenting path between any pairs of nodes in π_2 from 1 to 0. The choice of which of the at least $R/2$ paths of type 1 is based on the advice string as discussed in Section 3.5 below.

The mini-squares picked during this process jointly with the chosen mini-square are considered "alive". For any path, P between two live mini-squares the corresponding value, y_P, is now considered undetermined while other y_P variables are fixed. When we later go from a partial restriction to a full restriction it is not true that these undetermined variables can vary freely as in fact for each pair of live mini-square we may change the value of at most one of its adjacent paths. In spite of this we do not consider such a value to be known unless we have the full information at one of its end points.

As we pick $2k$ mini-squares we expect roughly[3] $2C \log n$ live mini-squares in any super-square and hence, by standard Chernoff bounds it is unlikely that this number is larger than $4C \log n$ for any super-square. Similarly, for any two adjacent super-squares S_1 and S_2 we expect $C \log n/2$ pairs (s_1, s_2) picked such that $s_i \in S_i$ and hence it is unlikely that this number is smaller than $C \log n/4$ for any pair (S_1, S_2).

We call the resulting restriction ρ. It determines values for variables y_P exactly as for σ. A variable x_e is fixed to a constant unless it as influenced by at least one live mini-square. Either from being within such a mini-square or in a brick with at least one live path passing through.

3.5 Changing types of augmenting paths

In the above procedure, in two places we need to select an augmenting path and (possibly) change its type. This happens when changing a path from type 1 to type 0 because its end-points are matched in π_1^U or π_2 and when opening up for changing the type from 0 to 1 by making it a chosen path.

We could accept to make this choice arbitrary by losing some factors of R in our bounds, but as it is always nice to avoid unnecessary loss let us describe a more efficient choice.

The choices of the $2R$ variables in a group corresponds to a vector in $\{0,1\}^{2R}$ and we want to modify one coordinate in order to change the Hamming weight from t to either $t+1$ or $t-1$ and let us suppose the latter. We want the choice to be limited and as invertible as possible. As the number of strings of weights t and $t-1$ are different we cannot achieve perfect invertability. Suppose first that $t \leq R$.

Definition 14. *Suppose $t \leq R$. A mapping f mapping $\binom{2R}{t}$ to $\binom{2R}{t-1}$ which maps each set to a subset, is a* k-almost bijection *if it is surjective and $|f^{-1}(x)| \leq k$ for any x.*

The following below lemma is probably well known but as the proof is not difficult, we prove it. It is likely that 4 can be improved to 3 but this does not matter greatly for us, as this only affects unspecified constants.

Lemma 15. *If $R/2 \leq t \leq R$ then there is a 4-almost bijection.*

Proof. Consider a bipartite graph where the left hand side elements are subsets of size $t-1$ and the right hand side elements are subsets of size t. Connect two sets iff one is a subset of the other. It is well known (see for instance Corollary 2.4 in [4]) that this graph has a matching, M_1, of size $\binom{2R}{t-1}$.

Modify the construction by making three copies of each left hand side node. Each copy is again connected to any set that contains it. It follows by the LYM inequality (stated as Theorem 3.3 in [4]) that this graph has a matching M_2 of size $\binom{2R}{t}$.

[3]The reason this is not exactly true is super-squares at the perimeter have only two or three neighboring super-squares. Such squares are less likely to have many live mini-squares. This results in a factor $(1+o(1))$ more mini-squares in other super-squares but this small factor does not matter and we ignore it.

Now define $f(x)$ as follows. If x is matched in M_1 let it be its partner in this matching. If x is not matched in M_1 define $f(x)$ to be the partner under M_2.

Due to the first condition f is onto. The property that $|f^{-1}(y)| \leq 4$ for follows as a preimage of y is either its partner under M_1 or a partner of one of its three copies under M_2. □

Taking the complement of both input and output we define a 4-almost bijection, g mapping $\binom{2R}{t}$ to $\binom{2R}{t+1}$ for $R \leq t \leq 3R/2$. We use f and g to guide our choices and in addition we have two bits of advice for each group.

Definition 16. *For each group of R paths we have two bits in the advice.*

When we want to convert a path from type 1 to type 0 between s_i and s'_j we look the types of all paths between the two mini-squares. This is a vector, v, in $\{0,1\}^{2R}$ which by the non-lopsidedness has Hamming weight t which is in the interval $[R/2, 3R/2]$. If $t > R$ we look at $g^{-1}(v)$ and consider the two bits of advice, b_1 and b_2. All we need to do is to ensure that each choice in $g^{-1}(v)$ is possible but to be explicit we can proceed as follows.

- If $g^{-1}(v)$ is of size one we pick the unique element.
- If $g^{-1}(v)$ is of size two we use b_1 to make the choice.
- If $g^{-1}(v)$ is of size three then $b_1 = b_2$ we pick the lexicographically first path and otherwise we use b_1 to choose between the other two paths.
- If $g^{-1}(v)$ is of size four then use the pair (b_1, b_2) to make the choice.

The reason for the advice string is to get a pure counting argument when we later analyze probabilities. It would have worked to pick a random element from $g^{-1}(v)$.

To make the situation uniform we have two advice bits for any pair of mini-squares in adjacent super-squares. One can note that most of these bits are never used but they make the construction uniform. We let B denote the values of all these bits.

If $t \leq R$ we instead consider $f(v)$ and change the type of the corresponding path. Finally if we want to change the weight from t to $t+1$ we reverse the two cases.

3.6 Analyzing the probability of a restart

We make a restart either because of a lopsided group or an unbalanced pick of π_2 and we analyze these separately. We start with lopsided groups.

Lemma 17. *The probability that uniformly random τ has lopsided group is $O(n^2 2^{-cR})$ for a positive constant c.*

Based on this lemma we fix R to be $C \log n$ for a sufficiently large constant C such that the probability of having a lopsided group is $o(1)$. Let us prove Lemma 17.

Proof. The almost complete matching τ is defined by the variables y_P which we in this section choose to take values 1 and -1. For each mini-square, sum the variables on its boundary and for a uniformly random assignment to all variables, let Z be the vector of all these mini-square sums. Let us denote the number of mini-squares by d making Z an integer vector of length d. When constructing τ we are conditioning on the event $Z = 0^d$.

Fix any two mini-squares s_1 and s_2 and let g be the group of $2R$ variables associated with paths between s_1 and s_2. Let X_g be sum of the variables in this group. We want to estimate the probability that $X_g = x$ where x is either at most $-R$ or at least R. Let Z'_g be the set of mini-square sums when the paths between s_1 and s_2 are removed. As these two mini-squares also have other adjacent augmenting paths this is still a vector of length d. Let v_x be the vector of length d that has x at positions s_1 and s_2 and is otherwise 0. We want to estimate

$$Pr[X_g = x \mid Z = 0^d] = Pr[X_g = x \wedge Z = 0^d]/Pr[Z = 0^d]$$

which equals

$$Pr[X_g = x \wedge Z'_g = -v_x]/Pr[Z = 0^d]$$

and as the two events are independent this equals

$$Pr[X_g = x]Pr[Z'_g = -v_x]/Pr[Z = 0^d].$$

We have the following lemma of which we postpone the proof.

Lemma 18. *For any outcome $v \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ we have $Pr[Z'_g = v] \leq Pr[Z'_g = 0^d]$.*

In view of the lemma we get the upper bound

$$Pr[X_g = x]Pr[Z'_g = 0^d]/Pr[Z = 0^d]$$

for the probability we want to estimate. Clearly $Pr[Z = 0^d] \geq Pr[X_g = 0]Pr[Z'_g = 0^d]$ and substituting this into the equation we get the upper bound $Pr[X_g = x]/Pr[X_g = 0]$. When $|x| \geq R$, then by standard Chernoff bounds, this probability is 2^{-cR} for some explicit c and since there are at most n^2 pairs of mini-squares the lemma follows. □

Let us prove Lemma 18.

Proof of Lemma 18. Let $f(v)$ be the probability that $Z'_g = v$. As v is the vector sum of contributions of single y_P, $f(v)$ is a giant convolution. To be more precise for each path P between mini-squares s_1 and s_2 we have a vector v_1 with a one in positions corresponding to s_1 and s_2 and 0 in all other positions. Define a probability distribution f_P that gives probability $\frac{1}{2}$ to each of v_1 and $-v_1$. The function $f(v)$ is the convolution of f_P over all paths P. If $\hat{f}_P$ is the Fourier transform of f_P then the Fourier transform of f is

$$\hat{f}(x) = \prod_P \hat{f}_P(x), \tag{1}$$

where x belong to the d-dimensional torus. Note that as f_P is symmetric around 0^d, $\hat{f}_P$ is real-valued. Moreover, for each pair of neighboring mini-squares s_1 and s_2 we have $2R$ paths between s_1 and s_2. This implies that the right-hand side of (1) can be written as

$$\prod_{s_1,s_2} \hat{f}^{2R}_{s_1,s_2},$$

where $f_{s_1,s_2} = f_P$ for any path P with endpoints s_1 and s_2. We conclude that $\hat{f}$ only takes real and non-negative values. We conclude that, as for any function with a real-valued and non-negative Fourier transform, $f(0) \geq f(v)$ for any v and this is exactly what we wanted to prove. □

Let us next discuss the balance condition when picking π_2.

Lemma 19. *The probability that π_2 is unbalanced is $O(n^{-2})$ provided $C > C_0$ for some fixed constant C_0.*

Proof. This might follow from the fact that Chernoff bounds are true for negatively correlated variables. It is, however, not quite obvious that our variables are negatively correlated. It is true that fixing the size of the matching causes negative correlation but the requirement to be a matching is more complicated and could give positive correlations. In view of this let us sketch a direct argument.

If we picked the pairs of mini-squares with replacement the lemma would be completely standard. Let us analyze the dynamic process. To see that we do not pick more than $4C \log n$ mini-squares in any super-square with high probability we note two facts.

- As we only pick an $o(1)$ fraction of all mini-squares, at each point in time a fraction $(1 - o(1))$ of all pairs are available.
- In view of this the probability that any single mini-square is picked is only a $(1 + o(1))$ factor larger compared to the procedure with replacement.

That we are unlikely to pick many mini-squares in a single super-square now follows from the corresponding result for the process of picking with replacement.

We turn to the condition that we have at least $C \log n/4$ pairs in any two adjacent super-squares. Also, this analysis is completely standard if edges are picked with replacement. If we condition on not picking more than $4C \log n$ mini-squares in any super-square the probability that a picked edge is between two given super-squares does not decrease by more than a factor $1 - o(1)$. Hence the probability of picking very few edges between two given super-squares in the process without replacement is not so different compared to the probability of the same event in the process with replacement. We leave it to the reader to fill in the details. □

4 The switching lemma

In this section we establish the following basic switching lemma.

Lemma 20. *There is a constant A such that the following holds. Suppose there is a t-evaluation that includes $F_i, 1 \leq i \leq m$ in its range and let $F = \vee_{i=1}^{m} F_i$. Let σ be a random restriction from the space of restrictions defined in Section 3. Then the probability that $F\lceil_\sigma$ cannot be represented by a decision tree of depth at most $2s$ is at most*

$$\Delta(A(\log n)^3 t\Delta^{-1})^s.$$

Remark 21. *A good way to think about the parameters when applying Lemma 20 is that R is given by the choice of n. We then choose Δ to be sufficiently large to get a small failure probability. The value of T that controls how much the instance shrinks is then calculated as $T = 150\Delta^2 R$, and this also determines the value of k.*

Proof. We are interested in a σ that gives a long path in the decision tree. As in previous papers [10], [12] we explore what has been called "the canonical decision tree" under the partial restriction ρ which we from now on call simply "a restriction" dropping the word "partial". As σ has fewer live variables compared to ρ this is sufficient to establish the lemma.

For any variable x_e we define its *influential mini-square(s).* This is either a single mini-squares or two mini-squares. We want the property that if we know the values of all y_P around the influential mini-square(s) then this uniquely determines the value of x_e. If e is within a mini-square then this mini-square is its influential mini-square(s). If e is in a brick outside the mini-squares then the influential mini-squares are the closest end point(s) of the live path(s) in this brick. By "closest" we here mean a live mini-square such that if we know the value of all adjacent variables y_P then we know the value of the x_e.

Definition 22. *The value of x_e is* forced *iff the values of y_P is known for all paths connected to its influential mini-square(s).*

If we are interested in the value of a variable x_e that is not forced, we need to find out more information to change this state of affairs. The main way to get such information is by something we call matched pairs.

Definition 23. *If two mini-squares s_1 and s_2 give a* matched pair *then we should change the value of y_P from 0 to 1 where P is a path with end-points s_1 and s_2.*

Remark 24. *We use this concept for pairs of neighboring chosen mini-squares and for pairs in the matching π_2. In both cases the identity of the path to change follows from the context. For pairs of chosen mini-squares it is the chosen path and for pairs in π_2 it is the path the was modified when it was first picked. Note that a matched pair (s_1, s_2) fixes, once and for all, the values of all variables $y_{P'}$, where P' is a path with an end-point s_1 or s_2*

We now proceed to define the canonical decision tree. Remember that while our starting trees have variables corresponding to edges in the grid, the tree we are creating has variables corresponding to the chosen paths.

The process of creating the canonical decision tree is guided by ρ and a set I of matched pairs. The support of the set I is the mini-squares appearing in any matched pair and this is initially empty.

Letting T_i denote $\varphi(F_i)$, we go over the branches of T_i for increasing values of i. As the values to some variables are forced by the current information we cannot freely follow any branch. We locate the first (in any fixed order) branch that leads to one and which can be followed by the current information and call it the *forceable* branch. Let us be formal.

Before stage j we have an information set I^j in the form of some matched pairs. It contains some pairs from π_2 and some pairs based on answers in the decision tree. In stage j we have forcing information J_j that forces the values of all variables on the forceable branch leading to a one. This set contains.

1. A set of matched pairs from π_2.
2. A set of matched pairs of chosen mini-squares, consistent with the information set I^j.

By "consistent" we mean that the resulting partial matching on chosen mini-squares is locally consistent in the sense of Definition 1.

We now extend the canonical decision tree by, for any chosen mini-square mentioned in J_j we ask for its partner in the decision tree. This information, jointly with the matched pairs from π_2 in J_j, forms the jth information set, I_j, and we set $I^{j+1} = I^j \cup I_j$.

Given I^{j+1} we can determine whether the forceable branch is followed. If it is, we answer 1 in the canonical decision tree and halt the process. Otherwise, we go to the next stage and look for the next forceable branch. If there is no more forceable branch we halt with answer 0. Let T be the resulting decision tree. To see that this is an acceptable choice for $\varphi(F)$, we have a pair of lemmas.

Lemma 25. *Let γ be a set of answers in the decision tree. If there is no forceable branch given this information, then, for each i, $T_i\lceil_{\sigma\gamma}$ is a 0-tree.*

Proof. Suppose there is a locally consistent branch in $T_i\lceil_{\sigma\gamma}$ that leads to a leaf labeled one. The information used to follow this branch can be used as forcing information. □

Lemma 26. *Let γ be a set of answers in the decision tree. If we answer 1 then there is an i such that $T_i\lceil_{\sigma\gamma}$ is a 1-tree.*

Proof. In fact for T_i used for the construction of the forceable branch we have now reached a leaf that is labeled 1. □

We use Razborov's labeling argument [18] to analyze the probability that we make $2s$ queries in the canonical decision tree. Slightly oversimplifying, given a ρ that gives a long path in the canonical decision tree, we create a ρ^* with fewer live centers such that we can recover ρ from ρ^* and some limited size external information.

Take any branch of this length and suppose it was constructed during g stages using information sets J_j. Let $J^* = \cup_{j=1}^{g} J_j$ and as any query is a result of including an element in J^* we know that it contains at least s pairs and for notational convenience we assume that this number is exactly s. As the estimate for the probability of getting a set J^* of size $s+d$ is exponentially decreasing in d we can sum over all values of d, formally justifying this assumption.

Note that J^* may not be locally consistent when seen as a partial matching on the chosen nodes, but this is not required. We proceed to analyze the probability that the process results in a J^* of size s. Let us start with an easy observation.

Lemma 27. *The support sets of J_j are disjoint. The support of J_j is also disjoint with the support of I_i as long as $i \neq j$.*

Proof. The parts coming from π_2 are clearly disjoint as π_2 is a matching. The pairs of chosen nodes are also disjoint as any mini-square included in J_j is included in I_j and later $J_{j'}$ are disjoint from I_j. □

In the spirit of [10] and [12] we want to find a restriction ρ^* with fewer live mini-squares and then show how to reconstruct ρ from ρ^* and some external information. First note that it is possible for several tuples (τ, U, π_2, B) to produce the same ρ and hence to make counting unambiguous we count such 4-tuples and not partial restrictions. In the same vein we do not reconstruct it from ρ^* but rather from a quadruple $(\tau^*, U^*, \pi_2^*, B^*)$ (and some external information). The quadruple $(\tau^*, U^*, \pi_2^*, B^*)$ does produce a restriction ρ^* but that is not what we count. As the value of π_1 is fixed, π_1^U is determined by U and hence we do not need to include π_1 in the information.

Informally we want ρ^* to be ρ modified by the information set J^*. In other words for a matched pair in J^* we change the type of one augmenting path between the two mini-squares and now consider the two endpoints to be dead. We proceed to find a quadruple that gives this restriction. The main crux is to construct π_2^* and U^* and let us start with this.

We initialize π_2^* to π_2 with all matched pairs in J^* removed and $U^* = U$. We process the matching pairs, (s_1, s_2) of chosen nodes in J^* one by one in the order as they appear in J_j. If there is a pair (s_1', s_2') in π_2^* where s_i' is in the same super-square as s_i we remove this pair from π_2^* and replace s_i by s_i' in U^* for $i = 1$ and 2. If there is no such edge we allow for two "holes" of two empty super-squares in U^* as we still remove s_1 and s_2.

Next we construct τ^*. There is not any real choice how to do this as we want ρ^* to look like ρ with the additional information given by J^* but let us go over the details. For any square already dead in ρ nothing changes and all information stays the same. For the live nodes there are a number of cases. One important property to keep in mind is that for an alive but not chosen node the pairings are the same in π_2, J^* and their I_j sets. When it comes to the chosen nodes this is not the case and they can be matched to different nodes in π_1^U, J^* and their I_j sets. Let us consider a mini-square s in super-square S. We have a few alternatives.

1. The mini-square s is contained in a matched pair from $\pi_2 \cap J^*$.
2. The mini-square s is contained in a matched pair from π_2 and moved to U^*.
3. The mini-square s is contained in a matched pair from π_2 and is not moved to U^* and does not belong to J^*.
4. The mini-square s contained in U and neither it nor its partner in π_1^U takes part in the above process.
5. The mini-square s is contained in U and not in a matched pair in J^*, but where its partner in π_1^U is contained in a pair in J^*.
6. The mini-square s is contained in U and is matched in J^*.

The values of τ^* and τ are the same at most points and we use "changing the value" to indicate the value is different in the two mappings.

Case 1. We have that s is now dead in ρ^*. We change one value by restoring the value when s was introduced to π_2.
Case 2. First note that as the pairs in J^* are disjoint, s remains in U^* for the duration of the process. If its partner from π_2 is in the super-squares which is the partner of S in the matching π_1 then τ^* equals τ around s. If it is not then we change the value at one or two position. If s'' is the partner in π_2 restore the value of the variable of the path between s and s'' when (s, s'') was put into π_2. If s is in the super-square of the designated survivor do nothing more and otherwise consider the super-square, S', that is the partner of S under π_1. If there is a node $s' \in S'$ in U^* change the value of one path variable between s and s' from 1 to 0. We choose one variable that is possible through our selection function.

Case 3. This is simple as τ^* equals τ around s.

Case 4. Also in this case τ^* equals τ around s.

Case 5. Suppose s'' is the partner in π_1^U that disappeared. We restore the value of the chosen path between s'' and s to 1. Let S' be the partner of S under π_1. If there is a node $s' \in S'$ in U^* change the value of one path variable between s and s' from 1 to 0. We choose one variable that is possible through our selection function.

Case 6. In the case s is now dead in ρ^*. We restore the value on the path used when constructing π_1^U.

This completes the description of τ^*. Note that it might not be exactly an almost complete matching as, due to the possibility of holes in U^* and the possibility that the element in the super-square of the designated survivor is no more the designated survivor. This causes an unbalance of one at some mini-squares, but this deviation is completely determined by U^*.

The value of B^* plays little role. We simply set it to equal B. We might have to change it for pairs of mini-squares participating in the above process, but these are few and this can be handled by the external information.

We now proceed to define a process that, using external information, reconstructs the tuple (τ, U, π_2, B) from $(\tau^*, U^*, \pi_2^*, B^*)$ and the trees T_i. The "star quadruple" determines the values of y_P in the same way as the non-stared quadruple determined values for y_P. To be more precise the process is the following.

- Start with values given by τ^*.
- Define chosen mini-squares by U^*.
- For any pair of mini-squares in $\pi_1^{U^*}$ find one path connecting this pair as indicated by B^*. Change the corresponding value from 1 to 0.
- For any pair in π_2^* find one path using B^* and change the value from 1 to 0.
- Let the live mini-squares be the elements of U^* and the mini-squares of π_2^*.
- Consider a value y_P to be fixed unless if it is between two live mini-squares.

Call this restriction ρ^*. Let us establish a simple lemma for warm-up just to give an indication of how the proof proceeds.

Lemma 28. *The restriction ρ^* forces the first forceable branch to be followed.*

Proof. We claim that any variable y_p forced by ρ is also forced by ρ^* and to the same value. This follows as any such variable requires all its influential mini-squares to be dead. Any mini-square that this is dead in ρ is also dead in ρ^*. As the situation around it has not changed it is forced to the same value.

The additional information needed to follow the first forceable branch is given by the matching pairs in J_1. As this information is included in ρ^* the first forceable branch is followed. □

To correctly identify the first forceable branch is an important step in the reconstruction. Unfortunately there might be earlier branches forced to one by ρ^*. The reason is that the information that makes us follow such a branch might come from several different J_i and there is no guarantee that these matchings are locally consistent and hence it might not constitute an acceptable set J_1.

The optimistic view is that any such branch still would help us as it must point to some live mini-squares. We are, however, not able to use this and we need to make sure that the reconstruction is not confused. We introduce the concept of "signature" to enable us to correctly identify the first forceable branch.

Definition 29. *The* signature *of a live mini-square determines whether it is chosen and in such a case which direction it is matched in its forceable branch. It is given by three bits.*

Let us turn to the reconstruction process. During this process we specify the needed external information and in each situation we give the number of bits needed. We sum up the total size of the external information at the end.

We start with ρ^* and we reconstruct I_j and J_j in order. We let ρ_j^* be the restriction obtained from ρ jointly with I_i for $i < j$ and J_i for $i \geq j$. In particular, ρ_1^* is simply ρ^* which is the starting point. We have a set E of prematurely found chosen mini-squares jointly with their signatures. This is initially the empty set. We proceed as follows.

1. Find the next branch forced to one in any of the T_i by ρ_j^*.
2. Find, if any, mini-square of E whose information is used to follow this path. If this information is not locally consistent with I^{j-1}, go to the next branch.
3. Read a bit to determine whether there are more live variables to be found on the current branch. In such a case, read a number in $[t]$ to determine its position. If this variable has two influential mini-squares, read another two bits to determine which of these two mini-squares are alive. For any alive influential mini-square, retrieve the corresponding signature(s) from external information and, if chosen, include the mini-squares in E. Go to step 2.
4. Reconstruct I_j and J_j. Details below.
5. Remove any chosen mini-square included in J_j from E.

We need a lemma.

Lemma 30. *If the mini-squares of E together with their signatures on a branch leading to a one is consistent with the information in I^{j-1}, then it is a forceable branch. In particular the first such branch after the $j-1$th forceable branch is the jth forceable branch.*

Proof. Suppose $v \in E$, which by definition, is a chosen mini-square, and was included in $J_{j'}$ for some $j' \geq j$. As the current path is forced to one it must have been a potential forceable branch. If it was not the actual forceable branch it must be that at least one of the matched pairs needed to follow this branch is not allowed. Forcing information from π_2 is always allowed and thus the only possible problem is the consistency on the chosen mini-squares. If the signatures of the mini-squares used on the current branch do not give any conflict with I^{j-1}, it was allowed and hence it must be a forceable branch. □

Whenever we recover a pair of adjacent mini-squares we use external information to recover the advice bits. This only costs 2 bits and thus we below focus on identifying mini-squares and do not mention the reconstruction of advice bits.

We need to discuss how to reconstruct I_j and J_j and start with the latter. For each matched pair in J_j we have recovered at least one end-point from the forceable branch. If needed we use external information to recover the other end-point. This costs at most $1 + \log \Delta$ bits. This recovers J_j and we need to extend it to I_j.

For each element in J_j we need to discover whether it is chosen (this is one bit of external information) and to which node it is matched in I_j. If it is not chosen then the information in I_j is the same as the one in J_j (and also in π_2). If it is chosen then the partner is either in J_j and easy to find or it is live in ρ_j^*. This follows as if it is chosen and belongs to I_j but not J_j then, by Lemma 27 it cannot belong to J^*. In the case when it is alive we can, at cost $O(1) + \log \log n$ bits, find its identity. Once we have identified the two partners in a matching, at cost $O(1)$ we can reconstruct which augmenting path was used. This reconstructs all of I_j.

We reconstruct I_j and J_j and compute ρ_{j+1}^* and proceed to the next stage. At the end of this process we have reconstructed ρ and in the process we have also identified all the sets I_j and J_j and we know which pairs in J_j are chosen and which belong to π_2. For the pairs of chosen mini-squares, we put them back in to U and any replacements are moved back to π_2. At cost $O(1)$ we can identify the advice bits of any single mini-square involved in a move. This way we recover U, the full π_2, and B. Once we have these we can read off the original τ.

Let us calculate how much information was used. We have the following contributions.

- For many mini-square processed we need to read the signature. As we only process $O(s)$ mini-squares this is $O(s)$ bits.
- For the chosen nodes, once we have established their identities we might need $O(1)$ bits to determine in which direction they are matched. Note that this can be different in J_j and I_j. This costs at most $O(s)$ bits.

- For potentially forceable branches we read one bit to determine if there is any additional live mini-square to be found through this branch. As there are only at most s forceable branches the answer can be "no" at most s times. As we only discover at most $O(s)$ mini-squares to put in to E, the answer can only by "yes" at most $O(s)$ times. Thus the total number of such bits read is $O(s)$.
- For each edge in J^* at least one end-point is discovered at cost at most $1+\log t$ bits and the other at cost at most $1+\log\Delta$ bits.
- For each mini-square in I_j that need be discovered since it was not a member of J_j we might need $\log\log n + O(1)$ bits.

Summing up the information used we first have a cost $O(s)$ in several (but constant number) places. The main cost is given by the construction of the pairs in J^* and this is $s(\log t + \log\Delta)$. For each mini-square in J^* we might reconstruct its partner in I_j at an additional total cost at most $2s\log\log n$.

We proceed to compare the number of quadruples (τ, U, π_2, B) to the number of quadruples $(\tau^*, U^*, \pi_2^*, B^*)$, and let us first assume that there are no holes. Both U and U^* contain one mini-square from each super-square but there is a difference that U contains the designated survivor while U^* might contain a different mini-square from this super-square. Thus the number of possibilities for U^* is a factor Δ larger than the number of possibilities for U.

Both τ and τ^* are essentially almost complete matchings. We do not allow τ to be lopsided but this only reduces the number of possibilities, by Lemma 17, by a factor $1+o(1)$. It is the case that τ^* is only slightly more general but we only need an upper bound on the number of possibilities. On the other hand, if U^* does not contain the designated survivor the sum of all adjacent y_P (in ±1-notation) around this mini-square is not zero. The number of τ^* with these fixed sums is, however, smaller by Lemma 18. We conclude that the number of τ^* is bounded by $(1+o(1))$ times the number of different τ.

There is no difference between B and B^* and thus the number of alternatives is the same. We conclude that if we denote the number of different (τ, U, B) by N, then the number of triples (τ^*, U^*, B^*) is bounded by $\Delta N(1+o(1))$.

The big difference is in the probability of picking the restriction π_2 and π_2^*. The reason is that π_2 contains k pairs and π_2^* only $k-s$ pairs. It is true that π_2 is also not unbalanced, but as this, by Lemma 19, only changes the number by a factor $(1+o(1))$ we ignore this here and absorb this factor in the error term. We do have that both π_2 and π_2^* are matchings and thus we have to be slightly careful as the number of ways to extend a matching by one more pair depends on the current matching. In order to do this we put a probability distribution also on π_2^*. The random process to pick it is as the one picking π_2 (described on page 11) but only with fewer pairs picked and we ignore the balance conditions.

Let D denote the total number of possible pairs of mini-squares. We have that $D=\Delta^2(n/T)^2(2+o(1))$. This follow as there are $\Delta(n/T)^2$ mini-squares. Most of them (except at the perimeter) have 4Δ possible partners and hence the number of pairs is $(1+o(1))\Delta(n/T)^2 4\Delta/2$. We have the following lemma.

Lemma 31. *Suppose π_2 is of size k and $\pi_2^* \subset \pi_2$ is of size $k-s$ and assume that $\Delta=\omega(\log n)$. Then $Pr[\pi_2] \le 2^{o(s)}(k/D)^s Pr[\pi_2^*]$ which in its turn is bounded by $2^{O(s)}(\log n/\Delta^2)^s Pr[\pi_2^*]$.*

Proof. The way we define the probability space of partial matchings is slightly unusual and we need to be careful. There are $k!$ different ways to pick π_2. The probability of picking π_2 in a particular order γ is $\prod_{i=1}^k t_{i,\gamma}^{-1}$ where $t_{i,\gamma}$ is the number of pairs of mini-squares available at stage i assuming the order γ. As $\Delta=\omega(\log n)$ we have that k is $o(\Delta(n/T)^2)$. In other words very few of the mini-squares are picked at any stage of the process and hence $t_{i,\gamma}$ is on the form $(1-o(1))D$ but we mostly use much more detailed bounds below.

Similarly, the probability of π_2^* can be written as

$$\sum_{\gamma^*}\prod_{i^*=1}^{k-s} t_{i^*,\gamma^*}^{-1},$$

where γ^* determines the order in which its $k-s$ pairs are added. Each picked pair of mini-squares eliminates at most 8Δ possible other pairs and hence each $t_{i,\gamma}$ and t_{i^*,γ^*} is at least $D-8k\Delta$. The product giving the probabilities do have many factors so we need more precise information.

Say that γ and γ^* are associated (written as $\gamma\sim\gamma^*$) if the $k-s$ common elements are in the same order. In such a situation for each i^* there is an i corresponding to the same element such that $t_{i^*,\gamma^*} \ge t_{i,\gamma} \ge t_{i^*,\gamma^*} - 8s\Delta$. Restricting the product to these paired indices and using $t_{i,\gamma} \ge D/2$ we have

$$\prod_i t_{i,\gamma} \ge (1-16s\Delta/D)^k \prod_{i^*} t_{i^*,\gamma^*}.$$

As $k = \Theta(\log nD/\Delta^2)$ we have that

$$(1 - 16s\Delta/D)^k = 2^{-\Theta((s\log n)/\Delta)} = 2^{-o(s)},$$

given the assumption on Δ. As each factor omitted is at least $D - 8k\Delta$ we can conclude that

$$\prod_i t_{i,\gamma} \geq D^s 2^{-o(s)} \prod_{i^*} t_{i^*,\gamma^*}.$$

There are $k!/(k-s)! \leq k^s$ different γ associated with each γ^*. We conclude that

$$\begin{aligned} Pr[\pi_2] &= \sum_\gamma \prod_{i=1}^{k} t_{i,\gamma}^{-1} = \sum_{\gamma^*} \sum_{\gamma\sim\gamma^*} \prod_{i=1}^{k} t_{i,\gamma}^{-1} \leq \sum_{\gamma^*} \sum_{\gamma\sim\gamma^*} D^{-s} 2^{o(s)} \prod_{i^*=1}^{k-s} (t^*)_{i^*,\gamma^*}^{-1} \leq \\ &\leq \sum_{\gamma^*} (k/D)^s 2^{o(s)} \prod_{i=1}^{k-s} (t)_{i^*,\gamma^*}^{-1} \leq (k/D)^s 2^{o(s)} Pr[\pi_2^*], \end{aligned}$$

giving the first bound of the lemma. The second bound is obtained using the definitions of k and D. □

Let us finish the proof of Lemma 20. We can produce a random tuple (U, τ, B, π_2) that forces a branch of length at least s in the following way.

- Pick a random $(U^*, \tau^*, B^*, \pi_2^*)$.
- Pick external information and use the above inversion process to obtain (U, τ, B, π_2).

Up to a factor $(1 + o(1))$ we have ΔN possibilities for (U^*, τ^*, B^*) and N possibilities for (U, τ, B) where we have the uniform distribution on both spaces. It follows from Lemma 31 that the probability of the produced four-tuple is at most $\Delta 2^{O(s)}(\log n/\Delta^2)^s$ that of initial stared four-tuple.

Recalling that we have $2^{O(s)}(\Delta t)^s(\log n)^{2s}$ possibilities for the external information, we can conclude that if we sum $\Pr[(U, \tau, B, \pi_2)]$ over all tuples producing a canonical decision tree of depth at least s, then this is bounded by

$$2^{O(s)}(\Delta t)^s(\log n)^{2s}\Delta(\log n/\Delta^2)^s \leq \Delta 2^{O(s)}((\log n)^3 t/\Delta)^s.$$

This proves Lemma 20 in the case when there are no holes.

If we allow r holes then the number of possibilities of U^* increases by a factor at most n^{2r}. The number of τ^* is different as some sums are no longer 0, but the sum at each mini-square is uniquely determined by U^*. Once this is fixed, the number of τ^* is at most the number of almost complete matchings by Lemma 18.

For there to be a hole, by the balance condition, all the at least $C \log n/8$ edges between two super-squares must be present in J^*. This implies that $r = O(s/\log n)$ and the factor $n^{O(r)}$ can be absorbed in the factor $2^{O(s)}$.

Another difference is that if we have r holes then π_2^* contains $k + r/2 - s$ pairs. Also the factor resulting from this change can be absorbed in the $2^{O(s)}$ factor. This completes the proof also in case when there are holes. □

5 The lower bound for proof size

In this section we establish one of the two main theorems of the paper.

Theorem 32. *Assume that $d \leq O(\frac{\log n}{\log\log n})$ and let n be an odd integer. Then any depth-d Frege proof of the functional onto* PHP *on the $n \times n$ grid requires total size*

$$\exp(\Omega(n^{1/(2d-1)}(\log n)^{O(1)})).$$

Proof. The proof follows the standard path. We use a sequence of restrictions and after the ith restriction any sub-formula of the proof of original depth at most i is in the range of the t-evaluation.

Assuming this, after d restrictions, any sub-formula of the proof is in the range of the t-evaluation. By Lemma 13 what remains is a smaller functional onto PHP instance and by Lemma 7, provided the size of the remaining grid is significantly larger than t, the proof cannot derive contradiction. Let us give some details.

In the base case of depth 0, each literal naturally gives a 1-evaluation. Now suppose that the size (and hence the number of sub-formulas) of the proof is 2^S.

We apply a sequence of restrictions, the first one with $\Delta = \Omega((\log n)^3)$ and later with $\Delta = \Omega(S(\log n)^3)$ where we assume that the implied constant is large enough. We claim that, with high probability, after step i each sub-formula that was originally of depth at most i is now in the range of a $2S$-evaluation.

Indeed, consider Lemma 20 and take constants large enough so that the failure probability for an individual formula is bounded by 2^{-2S}. By the union bound, except with probability 2^{-S}, at step i all formulas originally of depth i are in the range of a $2S$ evaluation.

The parameter n turns into $\Theta(n/R\Delta^2)$ by one application of a single restriction and hence after the d restrictions, and using that $R = \Theta(\log n)$, we are left with a grid of size

$$n2^{-cd}S^{2-2d}(\log n)^{-7d}$$

for some constant c. There is a $2S$-evaluation which have every sub-formula of the proof in its range. By Lemma 7 provided that

$$n \geq 300 \cdot 2^{cd}(\log n)^{7d}S^{2d-1}.$$

such a proof cannot refute the PHP and we get a contradiction. Rearranging we get the bound for S claimed in the theorem. This concludes the proof. □

Next we turn to the multi-switching lemma.

6 Multi-switching

The extension to multi-switching only requires minor modifications and we start by stating the important lemma.

Lemma 33. *There is a constant, A, such that the following holds. Consider formulas F_i^m, for $m \in [M]$ and $i \in [n_m]$, each associated with a decision tree of depth at most t and let $F^m = \vee_{i=1}^{n_m} F_i^m$. Let σ be a random full restriction from the space of restrictions defined in Section 3. Then the probability that $(F^m)_{m=1}^M$ cannot be represented by an ℓ common partial decision tree of depth at most $4s$ is at most*

$$\Delta M^{4s/\ell}\big(A(\log n)^6 t\Delta^{-1}\big)^s.$$

Proof. As in the proof of the single switching lemma we outline a process to construct an ℓ common decision tree. We prove that this process is unlikely to ask more than $4s$ variables in a similar way to the single switching lemma.

Let us define the process of constructing an ℓ common decision tree. We treat the formulas for increasing values of m. We have counter j, starting at 0, indicating the number of times we have found a long branch in a decision tree. We have an information set I^+ which initially is empty.

If a formula F^m admits a decision tree of depth at most ℓ under ρ and the current I^+ then we proceed to the next formula. If not, we set $m_j = m$ and execute the process of forming a canonical decision tree. It discovers a branch of length at least ℓ in this tree and constructs the corresponding sets J_i^j for $i = 1, 2 \dots g_j$. We also have the corresponding information sets I_i^j.

After this branch has been discovered we ask, now in the ℓ common decision tree, for the partner of any chosen element in $I^{j*} = \cup_{i=1}^{g_j} I_i^j$. The answers jointly with the matching pairs from π_2 in I^{j*} form a new information set I^{j*+}. This information set is added to I^+ and we look for the next formula that needs a decision tree of depth at least ℓ. It might be the same formula F^{m_j}, but the situation is new as we have an updated set I^+.

Properties follow along the same lines as in the single switching lemma and we start with the lemma corresponding to Lemma 27.

Lemma 34. *The support sets of J_i^j are disjoint. The support of J_i^j is also disjoint with the support of $I_{i'}^{j'}$ as long as $i' \neq i$ or $j' \neq j$.*

Proof. The parts from π_2 are obviously disjoint and we need only consider the chosen mini-squares. For the same value of j, this lemma follows by the same argument as Lemma 27. As I^{j*+} contains each J_i^j and sets $J_i^{j'}$ for $j' > j$ are disjoint from I^{j*+} the general case is also true. □

Let $J^{j*} = \cup_i J_i^j$ be the information set obtained during the jth stage. It contains at least ℓ matched pairs and let us assume that the true number is s_j. Let $J^* = \cup_j J^{j*}$ and define ρ^* as ρ joint with information set J^*. We need to describe a process to find ρ from ρ^* and the set of formulas.

Let us immediately point out that the information which F^{m_j} are processed is contained in the external information. As at most $4s/\ell$ formulas are processed this gives an extra factor $M^{4s/\ell}$ in the size of the external information. This factor appears in the bounds of the lemma and hence we proceed to analyze the rest of the process.

Once we know the value of m_j we can run the reconstruction process based on F^{m_j} finding the sets I_i^j and J_i^j exactly as in the single switching lemma. There is no need to change this procedure.

A difference compared to the single switching lemma is the sets I^{*j+}. Again the information pieces from π_2 do not give a problem as they never change. For each chosen mini-square in I_i^j we need to specify a partner inside I^{*j+}. This may or may not belong to some $I_{i'}^j$. If it does, we can specify this at cost $O(1)$ but if not we can specify it at cost $O(1) + \log\log n$ bits as it is alive in ρ^*.

For each information piece in J_i^j we thus have, in the worst case, to discover one mini-square at cost t, one at cost Δ and then six mini-squares at cost $O(1) + \log\log n$ bits. These are two partners in I_i^j and up to four partners in I^{*j+}. This implies that the total external cost at stage j is at most $s_j(O(1)+6\log\log n+\log t+\log\Delta)$ bits.

As any edge in J_i^j might result in four queries in the common decision tree, if we have $4s$ questions in this tree, then $\sum s_j \geq s$ and let us for convenience assume we have equality. The total cost of external information is in such a case $2^{O(s)}(\log n)^{6s}(t\Delta)^s$.

Lemma 31 applies also in the current case and from a similar calculation to that of the standard switching lemma, we conclude that the total probability of quadruples τ, U π_2, B that can be reconstructed is bounded by

$$M^{4s/\ell}\Delta 2^{O(s)}((\log n)^6 t\Delta^{-1})^s.$$

This completes the proof. □

7 The lower bound for number of lines

We finally arrive at our second main theorem.

Theorem 35. *Assume that $d \leq O(\frac{\log n}{\log\log n})$ and let n be an odd integer and M a parameter. Then any depth-d Frege proof of the functional and onto* PHP *on the $n \times n$ grid where each line is of size M requires at least*

$$exp\left(\Omega\left(\frac{n}{(\log M)^{2d-1}(\log n)^{O(1)}}\right)\right)$$

lines.

Proof. Given that we established the multi-switching lemma the situation is now essentially the same as in [12].

Parameters are similar as in the proof for the total proof size. We use $\ell = \log M$ in all applications of the Lemma 33 while we have $t = 1$ in the first application and in later applications $t = \ell$. With these choices $M^{4s/\ell}$ equals $2^{O(s)}$ and can be included in the constant A.

We set $\Delta = \Theta((\log n)^7 t)$ to ensure that the base of the exponent (including the contribution from the $M^{4s/\ell}$ factor) is bounded by $\frac{1}{32}$. Now suppose the proof has N lines.

In our first application we set $4s_1 = \log N$ and we conclude, by the union bound, that each line with high probability admits its own s_1-common ℓ-evaluation.

In the second iteration we have $2^{s_1}N$ sets of formulas to consider. This is the case as we need to consider each leaf of each decision tree in each line. By setting $s_2 = 2s_1$ we can apply the union bound and conclude that with high probability all depth 2 formulas are now in the range of the respective ℓ-evaluations.

Continuing similarly, in the ith iteration we use $s_i = 2^{i-1}\log N$. The final common decision tree is of depth at most $\sum_{j=0}^{i-1} s_j = O(2^d \log N)$.

After d rounds of restrictions we have reduced the side length of the grid on which we define the PHP from n to $n/(\log n)^{O(d)}(\log M)^{2d-2}$. If this is larger than $300(\sum_{j=0}^{d} s_j + \log M)$ we can conclude that there is no proof and this gives the bound of the theorem. □

8 Final words

It seems that to be able to prove a switching lemma for a space of restrictions one essential property is that for any given variable, the probability of setting it to either constant should be significantly higher than keeping it undetermined. In the unrestricted PHP the probability that any variable is true is about $\frac{1}{n}$ and to make the probability of the variables remaining undetermined smaller we must go from size n to a size smaller than $\sqrt{n}$. With such a quick decrease in size we can only apply the switching lemma $O(\log\log n)$ times. In the graph PHP on the grid the probability of a variable being true to about $\frac{1}{4}$ and at the same time the probability of keeping a variable undetermined is about $\log n/\Delta$. It is harder to preserve a graph PHP, but this is made possible by using augmenting paths as the new variables. Thus it seems that both decisions were forced upon us but certainly there might be other possibilities and it would be interesting to see alternative proofs for a switching lemma for a space of restrictions that preserve the PHP.

In this paper we have proved yet another switching lemma and it might not even be the last one. There are many remaining questions in both proof complexity and circuit complexity and some might be attackable by

these types of techniques. It would be very interesting, however, to find a different technique to attack questions of Frege proofs where each formula is relatively simple.

While proofs of switching lemmas are non-trivial, the properties of the proof we use are rather limited. In the assumed proof of contradiction, after the restrictions, the proof, more or less, only contain formulas of constant size. It is not difficult to see that such a proof cannot find a contradiction for a set of axioms that are locally consistent. It would be interesting with a reasoning that used more interesting properties of being a proof.

Acknowledgments

I am deeply grateful to Svante Janson for suggesting the proof of Lemma 17. I am also very grateful to Per Austrin, Kilian Risse, Ben Rossman, and Aleksa Stanković for a sequence of discussions that lead to the start of the ideas for the current paper. Kilian has also greatly helped to improve the quality of the writing of the current paper. This is partly due to discussions about writing [12], but also when discussing details of the current paper. Finally, I thank the referees of this paper for several suggestions on how to improve the presentation. The research leading to this publication was supported by the Knut and Alice Wallenberg foundation.

References

[1] Miklos Ajtai. The complexity of the pigeonhole principle. *Combinatorica*, 14(4):417–433, 1994. doi: 10.1007/BF01302964.

[2] Albert Atserias, Nicola Galesi, and Ricard Gavaldà. Monotone proofs of the pigeon hole principle. *Mathematical Logic Quaterly*, 47:461–474, 2001. doi: 10.1007/3-540-45022-X_13.

[3] Stephen Bellantoni, Toniann Pitassi, and Alasdair Urquhart. Approximation and small-depth frege proofs. *SIAM J. Comput.*, 21:1161–1179, 1992. doi: 10.1137/0221068.

[4] Béla Bollobás. *Combinatorics: Set Systems, Hypergraphs, Families of Vectors, and Combinatorial Probability*. Cambridge University Press, 1986. ISBN 9780521337038. URL `https://books.google.se/books?id=psqFNlngZDcC`.

[5] Jean-Claude Fournier. Tiling pictures of the plane with dominoes. *Discrete Mathematics*, 165/166:313–320, 1997. doi: 10.1016/S0012-365X(96)00179-3.

[6] Merrick L. Furst, James B. Saxe, and Michael Sipser. Parity, circuits and the polynomial-time hierarchy. *Mathematical Systems Theory*, 17:13–27, 1984. doi: 10.1007/BF01744431.

[7] Armin Haken. The intractability of resolution. *Theoretical Computer Science*, 39:297 – 308, 1985. doi: 10.1016/0304-3975(85)90144-6.

[8] Johan Håstad. Almost optimal lower bounds for small depth circuits. In *Proceedings of the eighteenth annual ACM symposium on Theory of computing*, STOC '86, pages 6–20, New York, NY, USA, 1986. ACM. doi: 10.1145/12130.12132.

[9] Johan Håstad. On the correlation of parity and small-depth circuits. *SIAM Journal on Computing*, 43: 1699–1708, 2014. doi: 10.1137/120897432.

[10] Johan Håstad. On small-depth Frege proofs for Tseitin for grids. *Journal of the ACM*, 68:1–31, 2020. doi: 10.1145/3425606.

[11] Johan Håstad. On small-depth Frege proofs for PHP. In *Proceedings, 64th Annual IEEE Symposium on Foundations of Computer Science*, FOCS 2023, pages 37–49. IEEE, 2023. doi: 10.1109/FOCS57990.2023.00010.

[12] Johan Håstad and Kilian Risse. On bounded depth proofs for tseitin formulas on the grid; revisited. *SIAM Journal of Computation*, 54:FOCS22–288–FOCS22–339, 2025. doi: 10.1137/22M153851X.

[13] Russell Impagliazzo, William Matthews, and Ramamohan Paturi. A satisfiability algorithm for AC^0. In *Proceeding of the 23rd Annual ACM-SIAM Symposium on Discrete Algorithms, SODA 2012*, pages 961–972, 2012. doi: 10.1137/1.9781611973099.77.

[14] Jan Krajíček, Pavel Pudlák, and Alan Woods. An exponential lower bound to the size of bounded depth Frege proofs of the pigeonhole principle. *Random Structures & Algorithms*, 7(1):15–39, 1995. doi: 10.1002/rsa.3240070103. URL `https://onlinelibrary.wiley.com/doi/abs/10.1002/rsa.3240070103`.

[15] Toniann Pitassi, Paul Beame, and Russell Impagliazzo. Exponential lower bounds for the pigeonhole principle. *Computational Complexity*, 3:97–140, 1993. doi: 10.1007/BF01200117.

[16] Toniann Pitassi, Benjamin Rossman, Rocco A. Servedio, and Li-Yang Tan. Poly-logarithmic frege depth lower bounds via an expander switching lemma. In *Proceedings of the Forty-Eighth Annual ACM Symposium on Theory of Computing*, STOC 2016, page 644–657, New York, NY, USA, 2016. Association for Computing Machinery. ISBN 9781450341325. doi: 10.1145/2897518.2897637. URL `https://doi.org/10.1145/2897518.2897637`.

[17] Toniann Pitassi, Prasanna Ramakrishnan, and Li-Yang Tan. Tradeoffs for small-depth frege proofs. In *62nd Annual Symposium on Foundations of Computer Science, FOCS 2021*, pages 445–456, Los Alamitos, CA, USA, feb 2021. IEEE Computer Society. doi: 10.1109/FOCS52979.2021.00052. URL `https://doi.ieeecomputersociety.org/10.1109/FOCS52979.2021.00052`.

[18] Alexander A. Razborov. *Bounded Arithmetic and Lower Bounds in Boolean Complexity*, pages 344–386. Birkhäuser Boston, Boston, MA, 1995. ISBN 978-1-4612-2566-9. Editors Peter Clote and Jeffrey Remmel.

[19] Benjamin Rossman, Rocco A. Servedio, and Li-Yang Tan. An average-case depth hierarchy theorem for boolean circuits. In *IEEE 56th Annual Symposium on Foundations of Computer Science, FOCS 2015, Berkeley, CA, USA, 17-20 October, 2015*, pages 1030–1048, 2015. doi: 10.48550/arXiv.1504.03398.

[20] Michael Sipser. Borel sets and circuit complexity. In *Proceedings of the fifteenth annual ACM symposium on Theory of computing*, STOC 1983, pages 61–69, New York, NY, USA, 1983. ACM. ISBN 0-89791-099-0. doi: 10.1145/800061.808733.

[21] Nicolas Thiant. An $O(n \log n)$ algorithm for finding a domino tiling of a plane picture whose number of holes is bounded. *Theoretical Computer Science*, 303:353–374, 2003. doi: 10.1016/S0304-3975(02)00497-8.

[22] Grigori S. Tseitin. On the complexity of derivation in the proposistional calculus. In A. O. Slisenko, editor, *Studies in constructive mathematics and mathematical logic, Part II*, 1968. doi: 10.1007/978-3-642-81955-1_28.

[23] Alasdair Urquhart and Xudong Fu. Simplified lower bounds for propositional proofs. *Notre Dame Journal of Formal Logic*, 37(4):523–544, 1996. doi: 10.1305/ndjfl/1040046140.

[24] Andrew Chi-Chih Yao. Separating the polynomial-time hierarchy by oracles. In *26th Annual Symposium on Foundations of Computer Science, FOCS 1985*, pages 1 –10, oct. 1985. doi: 10.1109/SFCS.1985.49.

A Proof of Lemma 3

The purpose of this section is to prove Lemma 3, restated here for convenience.

Lemma 3. (Restated) *Suppose M is a locally consistent matching. Then any subset of M is locally consistent.*

Proof. Suppose the matching M is of size t and let M_0 be a sub-matching of size t_0. We have sets of S of T and an extension of M to a matching of $S \times T$. This, of course, is also an extension of M_0 and if both these sets are of size at most $48t_0$ we are done, so assume that this is not the case and we need to decrease the sizes of S and T.

We need to take a closer look on which sub-areas of the grid allow matchings. This is traditionally stated as "tiling an area in the plane with dominos of size 2". We need to recall some facts about such tilings and we use results from [21] and [5]. For the convenience of the reader we give the argument from scratch.

A "figure" is a number of black and white squares. An example is given in Figure 3. Each square has four edges along its sides and two squares are connected if they share an edge (and not if they only meet at a corner). Connected squares are thus of different colors. We are interested in connected figures but not necessarily simply connected. Each figure has a perimeter which is the set of edges which only belong to one square of the figure. There is an outside perimeter which is a simple path and if the figure is not simply connected, we have perimeter(s) around any interior hole(s).

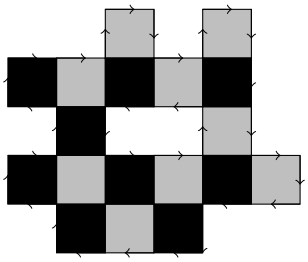


Figure 3: A figure that cannot be tiled. It is not simply connected and we show the assumed orientation of the perimeter.

It is convenient to use directed paths and we direct the perimeter of a figure in the clockwise order and the perimeters of the holes in the counter-clockwise order. In each case, the figure lies to the right of each perimeter edge when the edge is traversed in its intended direction. For notational convenience we let the coordinates of the corners of the squares be the integer points.

Definition 36. *The* cost *of a directed edge is 1 if the square to its right (when traversed in the intended direction) is white and -1 otherwise. The cost of a path is the sum of the costs of its edge. We denote the cost of a path P by $c(P)$.*

The following lemma is one reason why the given definitions are useful.

Lemma 37. *Assume we direct the perimeter as described, i.e. the outer perimeter in the clockwise direction and the perimeter around any holes in the counter-clockwise direction. If the figure contains b black squares and w white squares then the total cost of the perimeter is $4(w - b)$.*

Proof. For each square in the figure consider the four edges of the perimeter of this square when it is traversed in the clockwise order. The total cost of all edges is then $4(w - b)$ as each white square contributes 4 and each black square -4. The edges internal to the figure are traversed once in each direction and these two contributions cancel each other. The edges traversed once give the cost of the perimeter and hence the lemma follows. □

Suppose we are given a figure, A, with equally many black and white squares and we want to determine whether it admits a matching. As we can treat each connected component separately we can assume that A is connected. We use Hall's marriage theorem to study this question. Let L be a set of black squares and $N(L)$ be the set of white neighbors, both within A. It follows from Hall's marriage theorem that a necessary and sufficient condition for A to be matchable is that for any L we have $|N(L)| \geq L$. For a set L that potentially violates this condition let us look at the figure $A_0 = L \cup N(L)$. This contains more black squares than white squares and hence the cost of its perimeter must be negative.

This perimeter contains edges from the perimeter of A and some edges internal to A. Note that the latter edges all have cost one as there must be a white square to its right. Indeed if there was a black square to its right, $N(L)$ would contain also the square to its left and hence the edge would not belong to the perimeter. This property implies that these edges internal to A must alternate in the sense that every other edges is vertical

and every other edge is horizontal. We call such a sub-figure "white bounded". Using this terminology we have the following lemma which is a combination of the above reasoning and Lemma 37.

Lemma 38. *A figure with an equal number of black and white squares is matchable unless it contains a connected white-bounded sub-figure with a perimeter of negative cost.*

For instance in Figure 3 one such sub-figure can be found by 10 squares down and to the left. This sub-figure contains 6 black and 4 white squares.

Let us return to our matching M_0 which can be extended to a matching of $S \times T$ where S and T both are of total size at most $48t$. The aim is to decrease these sizes. In order to do this we define a new notion. Let $I = [a, b]$ be an interval and K a multiset contained in the interior of I. Define the "left function" of I as follows.

- $f_l^I(a) = 0$.
- For $a < i \leq b$ set $f_l^I(i) = f_l^I(i-1) + \delta_i$ where $\delta_i = 2$ if $i \notin K$ and otherwise $\delta_i = -k_i/2$ where k_i is the number of copies of i in K.

Similarly, we have a right function, defined by $f_r^I(b) = 0$ and $f_r^I(i) = f_r^I(i+1) + \delta_i$. A set, T, covers a set K if for each $x \in K$ we have $x \in T$. We need slightly more than a standard cover and to formulate this it is natural to think of any set of integers as a set of maximal and disjoint intervals. It is easy to see that this can be done in a unique way. As the correspondence is immediate we blur the distinction between the set of points and the collection of maximal and disjoint intervals.

Definition 39. *A set of intervals, S,* well covers *a multi-set K if S covers K and for each $I \in S$ we have $f_l^I(i) \geq 0$ and $f_r^I(i) \geq 0$ for each $i \in I$.*

We have the following lemma.

Lemma 40. *Any set K of cardinality t can be well covered by a collection of intervals of even length of total size $6t$.*

Proof. We add the points of K one by one and build the set of intervals at the same time maintaining the property that the current intervals form a well cover of the so far added points. For each point in K we add at most 5 points to S. We make the intervals of even length in the end.

We start with K empty and no intervals. Suppose we want to add p to K. If p is not in S, we add it. We find the two points to the left of p which are as close as possible to p and which are currently not in S and add them to S. Similarly we add two points to the right of p.

Obviously S cover K and we need to prove that it also well covers. We establish this by induction. Clearly this is true if K is a singleton and we need to study adding a general point p to K.

As intervals not touched by the change remain the same, and left and right are symmetric, it is sufficient to look at f_l^I for the interval, I, that the added point p ends up in. The interval I is the union of some intervals I^i existing before the addition of p, jointly with p and the four added points.

Define a function f on I by setting $f(x) = f_l^{I^i}(x)$ if $x \in I^i$ and $f(x) = 0$ otherwise. We claim that $f_l^I(x) \geq f(x) + \delta_x$ where, for x strictly to the left of p, δ_x is twice the number of points added strictly to the left x. If x equals p or is to the right of p then $\delta_x = 0$. Clearly this claim is sufficient to establish that f_l^I remains non-negative.

The claim uses the alternative characterization of $f_l^I(x)$ as being twice the number of points to the left of x that belongs to $I \setminus K$ minus half the number of points in $I \cap K$ to the left of or equal to x. If there was no merger of interval the bound on f_l^I is obvious. That mergers do not decrease f_l^I follows from the fact that the contribution to f_l^I from I^i is non-negative due to the non-negativity of $f_l^{I^i}$. We conclude that the claim holds.

Finally, we add a point to any interval in S of odd size. As each interval is of length at least 5, this multiplies its length by at most 6/5. □

The squares of M_0 gives a number of connected figures and consider any point on the perimeter of one of these figures. We define K_1 to be the set of all first coordinates of these points, considered as a multiset. This is clearly a set of size at most $8t_0$. We let S_0 be the set given by Lemma 40 that well covers K_1. Similarly considering the second coordinates we get a set K_2 and let T_0 be a well cover of this set. If either S_0 or T_0 contains points outside $[n]$ we drop these point(s). By Lemma 40 both S_0 and T_0 are of size at most $48t_0$ and hence Lemma 3 follows from Lemma 41 below. □

Lemma 41. *M_0 can be extended to a matching of $S_0 \times T_0$.*

Proof. Define the figure A to be $S_0 \times T_0$ with the squares of M_0 removed. Suppose for contradiction that A cannot be tiled with dominos of size 2. Then by Lemma 38 we get a white-bounded connected sub-figure, A_0, with a perimeter of negative cost. As we only analyze A_0, we only need to consider its connected component in $S_0 \times T_0$ and hence we can assume that S_0 and T_0 both are given by single intervals. The perimeter of A_0 contains an outer boundary and the perimeters of its holes (if any). First we observe that cost of the perimeter of any hole is non-negative. Suppose on the contrary that you have a hole H with negative cost perimeter.

To have any chance to have a negative cost, the hole H must contain some elements of M_0 and these give a matching M_0'. If not it has an all white boundary and positive cost. Now consider any rectangle, R with even side lengths that strictly contains H. We claim that there is no extension of M_0' to cover all of R. This follows as the figure obtained by removing from H from R has a negative cost boundary. Furthermore, this figure is of the form $L \cup N(L)$ for a suitable L and its existence would contradict that M_0' can be extended to any rectangle with even side lengths that contains its component in $S \times T$.

This proves that no hole in A_0 contributes a negative cost and next we establish that also the boundary perimeter of A_0 is of non-negative cost.

If this boundary contains no part of the boundary of $S_0 \times T_0$ then we can apply the above argument and conclude that the cost is positive. On the other hand if it is identical to the boundary of $S_0 \times T_0$ then the cost is 0.

In the remaining case we can divide this perimeter into segments s_i numbered form 0 to $2t-1$ where even numbered segments are along the perimeter of $S_0 \times T_0$ and odd segments contain edges that either are in the interior of A_0 or along the perimeter of M_0. First note that $c(s_{2j}) \geq 0$ for any j. This follows as they start and end with edges of cost 1. Costs of edges along the perimeter alternate between 1 and -1 except at the corners where we get two adjacent edges of the same cost.

Now let us look at the odd numbered components.

Lemma 42. *For each odd i we have $c(s_i) \geq 0$.*

Proof. Suppose that s_i starts at point (a, b). Then either a is in the interior of S_0 or b is in the interior of T_0 and as the two cases are symmetric we may assume the former. Let us for the time being assume that b is the smallest element in T_0. If s_i does not contain any edges from the perimeter of a component of M_0, each edge on the segment has cost 1 and the lemma is true. Otherwise, let p be the last point of s_i that is on the perimeter of M_0. We claim that the cost of the part of s_i from (a, b) to p is non-negative. This establishes the lemma as all edges after p on s_i are in the interior of A_0 and hence of cost 1. Let b' be the largest value of any second coordinate of any point on the segment from (a, b) to p. The following claim, of which we postpone the proof, finishes the proof, in the case when b is the smallest element of T_0.

Claim 43. *The path from (a, b) to p has cost at least $f_l^{T_0}(b')$.*

The case when b is the largest element in T_0 is completely analogous. We define b' to be the lowest value of the second component of the segment and use $f_r^{T_0}$ in the corresponding claim. This completes the proof of Lemma 42 modulo the claim. □

Let us establish Claim 43. Look at the projection of the given path on the second coordinate. Consider any b'' with $b < b'' \leq b'$ such that no point of M_0 has second coordinate b''. We want to associate cost two with any such value. As no point in M_0 projects on b'' any edge with a second coordinate b'' must be in the interior of A_0. As previously observed in this part we alternate between vertical and horizontal edges.

Thus there exists one edge with both end points with second coordinate equal to b''. We associate the cost 1 to b'' due to this edge. We must also have two edges with different second coordinates and one end point with second coordinate b''. In most situation there is one edge with second coordinate $b''-1$ and one edge with second coordinate $b''+1$. The only exception is when $b'' = b'$ and this points does not belong to M_0 in which case both other end points have second coordinate $b''-1$. For each of these two edges we associate cost $1/2$ with b'' for a total cost of two associated with b''. Note also that the total cost caused by any edge in the interior is 1.

The only edges on the path from (a, b) to p that give value -1 are those from the perimeter of M_0. We associate the cost $-1/2$ with each of the second coordinates of its end-points. These associated costs follow closely the definition of $f_l^{T_0}$ and the claim follows by simple inspection. Having established the claim we conclude that the perimeter of the figure A_0 cannot have negative costs. This contradiction completes the proof of Lemma 41. □